Learning in Committee? How Racial Diversity Shapes Speech, Evidence Use, and Substantive Representation in Legislatures

April 21, 2026

Abstract

Although increased racial diversity in American legislatures has expanded attention to race, particularly among nonwhite lawmakers, we know much less about how committee racial diversity shapes interactions between nonwhite and white legislators. I argue that repeated contact with nonwhite lawmakers in racially diverse committees may shape how white Democrats engage race-related issues, making them more likely to support race-related hearing statements with evidence. To test this expectation, I combine large-scale text classification with a detailed content analysis of more than 11,000 race-based committee hearing statements and 87,000 full bill texts from the 105th–117th Congresses. Using a within-legislator design, I find that white Democrats serving on racially diverse committees are more likely to reference evidence when discussing race and to cite the same sources as their nonwhite colleagues. I then show that this relationship is consistent with white Democrats learning from nonwhite lawmakers' use of evidence, though I am unable to fully rule out all alternative explanations. Finally, I demonstrate that race-based expertise is associated with substantive representation, as legislators who more frequently cite evidence when discussing race are more effective at advancing race-related legislation. Together, these findings suggest that descriptive representation may foster substantive representation, in part, by shaping how white Democrats engage race-related issues in racially diverse legislative committees.

Keywords: legislatures, race, committees, descriptive and substantive representation, evidence-based policymaking

Word Count: $\approx 9,000$

Increased racial diversity in American legislatures has expanded legislative attention to race. Nonwhite lawmakers are more likely than their white colleagues to sponsor racially salient legislation (Bratton and Haynie 1999; Pinney and Serra 2002; Sinclair-Chapman 2002; Wilson 2010, 2017), foreground race-related issues in committee hearings and floor debate (Minta and Sinclair-Chapman 2013; Wilson 2017; Dietrich and Hayes 2023; Lollis 2025), and create and join caucuses to coordinate race-based representational efforts (Tyson 2016; Clark 2019). Under certain conditions, nonwhite lawmakers are also more likely to support race-related bills and secure earmarks that enhance the substantive representation of nonwhite constituencies (Kerr and Miller 1997; Canon 1999; Whitby 2000; Haynie 2001; Tate 2004; Grose, Mangum and Martin 2007; Grose 2011; Clark 2019).[1] Nonwhite lawmakers also advance nonwhite interests through congressional oversight (Minta 2011), contacts with executive agencies (Lowande, Ritchie and Lauterbach 2019), constituency service (Broockman 2013), and greater access for racially focused interest groups to committees (Minta 2021).

Although existing work demonstrates that nonwhite representation shapes legislative behavior through the individual actions of nonwhite lawmakers and their interactions and coalitions with other racial minority lawmakers in the legislature (Brown 2014; Clark 2019; Tyson 2016), we know much less about *how committee racial diversity shapes interactions between nonwhite and white legislators*—and whether those interactions influence white lawmakers' behavior. This omission is notable because nonwhite representation varies widely across committees, creating disparate opportunities for nonwhite and white lawmakers to interact. And although policymaking authority is increasingly concentrated among party leaders, committees remain vital to policy development and act as gateways to policy success (Fenno 1973; Curry 2015; Curry and Rosenstiel 2025).[2] Taken together, these observations suggest that committee-level racial diversity—and the

[1]Some scholars find that party identification and the percentage of Black and Latino constituents in a district better predict lawmakers' support for racially salient legislation than race (Swain 1995; Hero and Tolbert 1995; Knoll 2009; Grose 2011).

[2]Curry and Rosenstiel (2025) demonstrate that Senators are still able to secure increased federal funding for their states from formula grant programs in committee, regardless of whether these bills advance through regular order or unorthodox procedures. Thus, even with the decline of regular order in Congress, legislators' committee actions are not merely symbolic; they meaningfully influence whether bills advance through the lawmaking process.

contact between white and nonwhite lawmakers that it fosters—may meaningfully affect substantive representation. Therefore, to fully understand the consequences of descriptive representation in Congress, it is necessary to examine how committee-level racial diversity influences legislators' speech and their ability to advance race-related legislation.

In this paper, I examine how the racial diversity of committees in the U.S. House of Representatives influences legislators' discussions of race in hearings and affects the advancement and passage of race-related legislation. I argue that in racially diverse committees, white and nonwhite legislators are more likely to interact repeatedly, which may lead white lawmakers to develop race-related expertise from their nonwhite colleagues. To test this argument, I combine large-scale text classification with a detailed content analysis of more than 11,000 race-based committee hearing statements and 87,000 full bill texts introduced in the U.S. House of Representatives from the 105th to the 117th Congresses. Leveraging a within-legislator identification strategy, I find that white Democrats on racially diverse committees are more likely to cite evidence when discussing race than white lawmakers on predominantly white committees. White Democrats on racially diverse committees are also more likely to cite the same sources of evidence in the second half of a term that nonwhite lawmakers on the same committee cited in the first half. Across several additional tests, I find that this pattern is consistent with a learning mechanism, though I do not fully rule out all alternative explanations. Finally, I show that race-based expertise is associated with substantive representation, as legislators who frequently refer to evidence when discussing race are more likely to advance race bills through the legislative process.

These findings advance scholarship on descriptive and substantive representation in two key ways. First, I find that white Democrats are more likely to support their race-related claims with evidence when serving on racially diverse committees. This is important because, although we know committees are sites where policy expertise is acquired and exchanged (Fenno 1973; Krehbiel 1992; Curry 2019; Ban, Park and You 2023), my results also suggest that they may foster race-related expertise. Second, I show that race-based expertise is associated with success in advancing race legislation. Scholars have long debated whether and under what conditions descriptive representation facilitates substantive representation (Canon 1999; Tate 2004; Minta 2011, 2021). My results indicate that race-related expertise developed by white Democrats in racially diverse committees may be one indirect mechanism through which descriptive representation translates into substantive representation.

Race-Based Contact Effects, Learning, and Evidence Use in Committees

Existing scholarship identifies several factors that shape whether race is discussed or considered in committee. Racially diverse committees devote more attention to race-related issues (Ellis and Wilson 2013; Minta and Sinclair-Chapman 2013; Nestor 2023), and in racially salient hearings, Black and Latino legislators participate more than their white colleagues (Gamble 2007; Minta 2009; Rouse 2023). Nonwhite legislators are also more likely to discuss race across hearing topics, and white lawmakers are more likely to do so in racially diverse committees (Lollis 2025). Race may also appear more frequently on the agenda when a committee's jurisdiction directly encompasses race-related issues (Minta and Sinclair-Chapman 2013; Ellis and Wilson 2013). Finally, the informational environment may also shape whether race is discussed, since witnesses and staff influence the information legislators encounter in committee (Ban, Park and You 2023).

What remains less clear, however, is whether committee racial diversity also shapes how white lawmakers engage race-related issues once they arise and, in turn, whether those changes matter for substantive representation. I argue that, once race-related issues enter committee deliberation, racial diversity may shape how white lawmakers engage that information, independent of whether a committee has jurisdiction over race-related issues or whether its informational environment highlights race. More specifically, my argument is not that racially diverse committees make white lawmakers generally more likely to absorb information and cite evidence in committee. Rather, I argue that repeated interaction with nonwhite colleagues may shape white lawmakers' use of evidence, specifically when discussing race-related issues, making them more likely to substantiate race-related claims with evidence and to adopt sources previously introduced by nonwhite members.

There are several reasons to expect committee diversity to influence how white Democrats engage race-related discussions. Existing work clarifies that the effects of descriptive representation depend in part on how members interact and exercise influence (Mendelberg, Karpowitz and Oliphant 2014; Mendelberg, Karpowitz and Goedert 2014). Consistent with this insight, intergroup contact theory suggests that repeated contact with nonwhite colleagues may alter white lawmakers' behavior (Allport, Clark and Pettigrew 1954; Pettigrew 1998; Enos 2014; Dyck and Pearson-Merkowitz 2014). Contact effects are most likely when individuals share goals, have incentives to cooperate, maintain equal status, engage in repeated interaction, and operate under rules and norms that structure those interactions (Pettigrew 1998, p. 66). These scope conditions align closely with the institutional design of legislative committees. Committee members meet frequently, work within a common policy jurisdiction, hold equal formal status (except for the chair and ranking member), and interact in highly structured settings (Lollis 2025). Committees are also information-rich institutions designed to transmit policy-relevant knowledge and expertise (Krehbiel 1992; Battaglini, Lai, Lim and Wang 2019; Curry 2019; Ban, Park and You 2023). Thus, while I do not claim that committee interactions change legislators' underlying attitudes, it is reasonable to expect that repeated interaction with nonwhite colleagues in racially diverse committees may shape how white lawmakers speak about race.

One mechanism through which cross-group contact in racially diverse committees may influence white lawmakers' statements is learning (Allport, Clark and Pettigrew 1954; Pettigrew 1998). Because committees are designed to transmit policy-relevant information (Krehbiel 1992; Battaglini et al. 2019; Curry 2019), hearings repeatedly expose members to colleagues' expertise through their statements and questions. As a result, exposure to nonwhite colleagues' statements, policy frames, and evidence usage in racially diverse committees may introduce white lawmakers to race-related knowledge they might otherwise lack (Mansbridge 1999). If white lawmakers learn from their nonwhite colleagues in these settings, they may increasingly cite evidence when discussing race. Accordingly, I expect racially diverse committees to be associated with differences in both the frequency and content of white lawmakers' evidence usage.

First, I expect that white lawmakers on racially diverse committees will cite evidence more often in their race-related remarks than white lawmakers on predominantly white committees. Because nonwhite members routinely support race-related statements with evidence, exposure to their citation practices on diverse committees may increase white members' evidence use when discussing race.[3]

Second, I expect that white lawmakers on racially diverse committees will cite the same sources of evidence as nonwhite lawmakers. Nonwhite lawmakers possess greater race-based expertise because they draw on lived experiences and identity-based knowledge when engaging race-related issues. As a result, white lawmakers—who may have less race-based expertise themselves—likely view nonwhite colleagues as authoritative on race, both because they possess identity-based expertise and because descriptive representation grants them greater credibility when discussing race-related issues (Mansbridge 1999; Minta 2011, 2021). If so, white lawmakers on racially diverse committees should become more likely to rely on the same sources that nonwhite lawmakers use to substantiate race-related claims. Therefore, I expect that exposure to nonwhite colleagues on racially diverse committees will introduce white members to new sources for race-related arguments, making them more likely to cite, in the second half of the term, the same sources of evidence that nonwhite lawmakers cited in the first half of the term on the same committee.[4]

Contact effects, however, are unlikely to influence all white lawmakers equally. Cross-group contact is most effective when individuals interact as peers and pursue common goals (Pettigrew 1998). Because most nonwhite legislators are Democrats (Griffin 2014) and congressional parties

[3]One precondition of this argument is that nonwhite lawmakers regularly cite evidence when discussing race, thereby creating the opportunity for white lawmakers to learn from their evidence use. Figure 1 and Appendix Table 4.3 show that nonwhite lawmakers are more likely than white lawmakers to cite evidence when discussing race.

[4]One concern is that citation convergence could reflect performative engagement rather than learning. For instance, white legislators may defensively or disingenuously repeat sources cited by nonwhite colleagues (i.e., "virtue signaling"). In a hand-coded training set of race-related hearing statements ($n = 5{,}000$), undergraduate research assistants coded each statement as "neutral" (i.e., no affect, just content) or "negative" (i.e., explicitly discussing nonwhite lawmakers in negative terms). Ninety-eight percent of race statements were coded as neutral. This does not suggest that negative language toward nonwhite lawmakers or performative citations never occur in committee hearings, but it does indicate that such behavior is rare, not systematic, and unlikely to drive the results.

are internally homogeneous (Lee 2016), white Democrats are more likely than white Republicans to share partisan ties, equal status, and policy objectives with nonwhite members. Democrats are also more likely to support racially progressive policies (Grose 2011), suggesting that they may be more open to learning from nonwhite lawmakers than Republicans. If contact fosters learning, then white Democrats serving on racially diverse committees should be especially likely to change both the frequency and content of their evidence-based statements about race.

> ***H1 (Frequency of Evidence-Based Race Statements)***: The likelihood that a white Democrat makes evidence-based race statements in hearings is positively associated with the racial diversity of a committee.

> ***H2 (Content of Evidence-Based Race Statements)***: As a committee's racial diversity increases, white Democrats are more likely to cite in the second half of a term the same sources of evidence that nonwhite committee members cited in the first half of the term.

These expectations are consistent with the idea that white Democrats learn from nonwhite lawmakers, but similar empirical patterns could also arise through other mechanisms. One possibility is strategic adaptation: white lawmakers may adjust their rhetoric to appeal to nonwhite colleagues on the committee or to signal attentiveness to race-related concerns without actually acquiring new knowledge. A second possibility is shared informational exposure: committee members hear the same witness testimony, receive similar staff briefings, review common background materials and reports, and may also be exposed to common messaging or informational guidance from party and committee leaders (Burgat, Hunt, LaPira, Drutman and Kosar 2020; Gaynor 2025). As a result, white and nonwhite lawmakers may cite the same sources simply because they are exposed to the same information. A third possibility is that diverse committees generate different norms and incentives: race-related evidence may become more expected, more politically useful, or more reputationally rewarding in those settings, leading white lawmakers to change how they speak even without learning.

To better distinguish learning from these alternative explanations, I exploit over-time variation in committee composition among legislators who serve on the same committee across consecutive terms. One implication of my argument is that, if white Democrats are learning from nonwhite lawmakers' evidence use, they should continue to use information they acquire earlier at a later point in time. Therefore, if white Democrats are learning from nonwhite colleagues, greater racial diversity on a legislator's committee in the prior term $(t-1)$ should predict more evidence-based race statements in the current term (t), even after controlling for the committee's current racial diversity. In contrast, if white Democrats' evidence-based speech is driven by incentives or optics (e.g., strategic adaptation or changing norms and incentives), prior-term committee diversity should have little effect on their behavior in the current term, especially if their committee is no longer racially diverse. Put differently, if learning is not occurring, white Democrats should be less likely to continue making evidence-based race statements once they are in a less racially diverse committee environment.

The purpose of this test is to evaluate more rigorously whether learning occurs between nonwhite and white Democratic lawmakers in racially diverse committees. Although this test is useful in that respect, it does not fully rule out all alternative mechanisms. For example, white Democrats may gradually develop race-related expertise because they repeatedly work on race-salient policy issues, rely on stable committee staff who provide race-related information across terms, or follow career trajectories that place them in committee environments where race is regularly salient. Thus, prior committee diversity may capture not only learning from nonwhite colleagues, but also longer-term issue specialization or durable informational networks. Even so, this test helps assess whether learning is one plausible mechanism through which committee racial diversity may shape white Democrats' use of race-based evidence.

> ***H3 (Prior Committee Diversity and Subsequent Evidence Use)***: Among white Democrats who serve on the same committee in consecutive terms, greater racial diversity on that committee in the previous term $(t-1)$ will be associated with more evidence-based race statements in the current term (t), even after controlling for the committee's current racial diversity.

Finally, I examine the consequences of race-based expertise. Legislators who frequently cite evidence while discussing race in hearings demonstrate a level of race-based expertise that other lawmakers do not. I expect race-based expertise to facilitate substantive representation by increasing the likelihood that legislators advance and pass race-related legislation. This question is important because substantive representation depends not only on whether legislators discuss race, but also on whether they can translate that expertise into policy success. Although I do not expect a single mention of evidence in a race-related committee statement to affect whether a race bill passes the House, I do expect race-based experts—legislators who consistently cite evidence when discussing race—to be more successful at advancing the race bills they sponsor.

Legislators with such expertise should be both more knowledgeable about race-related policy and more motivated to advance it. Indeed, the idea that expertise contributes to effective lawmaking is not new (Volden and Wiseman 2014). The strongest and most consistent predictors of legislative effectiveness are tied to legislators' experience, expertise, and influence: members who have spent decades in the House, attained leadership positions, and developed narrow, specialized policy agendas are more effective than their peers (Volden and Wiseman 2014, 2020). Rank-and-file legislators also look to issue experts when deciding whether to support legislation (Curry 2015). Thus, legislators may seek information and guidance from race-based experts, increasing the likelihood that those lawmakers' race bills advance. At the same time, if issue-specific expertise is associated with effective lawmaking, race-based experts should not be systematically more effective at advancing legislation unrelated to race. Accordingly, legislators who frequently cite evidence when discussing race in committee hearings should be more effective at advancing race bills, but no more effective than their peers at advancing bills unrelated to race.

> ***H4 (Race-Based Expertise and Substantive Representation)***: Legislators who more frequently cite evidence when discussing race are more effective at advancing race bills.

Measuring Evidence in Committee Hearing Statements

I measure evidence use in legislators' committee hearing statements because statements made in hearings are both substantively meaningful and directly observable. Legislators' actions in committee hearings have become an increasingly relevant measure of behavior because they capture several important dimensions of legislative activity, including deliberation (Kathlene 1994; Ban, Grimmer, Kaslovsky, West et al. 2022; Miller and Sutherland 2023; Boyd, Collins Jr and Ringhand 2025), hearing topics and policy areas (Sheingate 2006; Minta and Sinclair-Chapman 2013; Esterling 2011), policy frames (Ban and Kaslovsky 2025; Lewallen, Park and Theriault 2024), and information use and acquisition (Ban, Park and You 2024). Existing work suggests that hearing statements are one way legislators define and prioritize problems, justify policy claims with information, and signal which arguments and sources they regard as authoritative in committee deliberation (Lewallen, Park and Theriault 2024; Ban, Park and You 2023; Park 2021). Unlike floor speeches, committee hearings are also closely tied to the development of policy expertise and the informational work of lawmaking (Kiewiet 1991; Krehbiel 1992; Battaglini et al. 2019). Legislators gain information in hearings from witness testimony (Ban, Park and You 2024), committee staff (Ommundsen 2023; Fong, Lowande and Rauh 2025), lobbyists (Ban, Park and You 2023), party leaders (Gaynor 2025), and experienced colleagues (Curry 2019). Therefore, hearing statements offer a useful way to assess whether legislators cite evidence to support race-related claims.

At the same time, legislators may not always prioritize acquiring or citing evidence, even in committee. Although legislators rely on information to decide how to vote, when to collaborate, and whether to compromise (Krehbiel 1992; Curry 2015), gathering relevant evidence requires substantial time and resources—both of which are scarce in an overburdened Congress (LaPira, Drutman and Kosar 2020). And the benefits of doing so are also not always obvious: in a polarized environment, grandstanding in hearings can be more strategically advantageous than citing evidence (Park 2021), especially because voters often reward such behavior (Park 2023). Thus, although evidence is central to committee work, its actual use may be relatively modest. If evidence is used infrequently, it is all the more important to understand the conditions under which legislators substantiate their discussions of race with evidence.

Despite the importance of understanding whether legislators cite evidence in committee hearings, measuring such behavior poses serious challenges. Given the length and volume of committee hearing transcripts, existing research analyzing committee statements typically follows one of two methodological approaches: (1) content analysis of a limited number of hearings within a small set of committees in a single congressional term (Gamble 2007, 2011); or (2) automated coding using classification and machine learning methods (Park 2021, 2023; Lewallen, Park and Theriault 2024; Lollis 2025; Ban, Park and You 2026). Content analyses of this kind allow scholars to create detailed, highly accurate measures, but they are often so time intensive that the resulting findings are limited to a specific committee or term, which may represent a non-random sample of the broader corpus. Classification and machine learning methods address this limitation by coding a much larger volume of statements, but they can struggle to identify complex and multidimensional latent concepts and therefore often produce less accurate measures than hand coding.

I employ a measurement strategy that combines large-scale classification with content analysis to address both limitations. Since my theory focuses on how legislators use evidence when discussing race, I systematically identify race-based statements from all committee hearings over a 26-year period using classification methods. By systematically identifying all race-related statements in congressional committee hearings, I mitigate concerns about non-random sampling and term- or committee-specific findings. I then conduct a detailed and systematic content analysis of each race statement to determine whether it cites evidence. By manually coding each statement, I produce precise and valid measures that capture not only whether a statement cites evidence but also the specific source referenced.

Data & Methods

I analyze transcripts from more than 16,000 U.S. House committee hearings held between the 105th and 117th Congresses. The hearing transcripts were scraped from `govinfo.gov` and parsed into individual legislator statements using an algorithm that identifies speaker names and matches them to GovTrack identifiers. The resulting statements were then manually reviewed to verify that each was matched to the correct legislator.[5] The unit of analysis is the individual legislator statement, which I define as a single uninterrupted speaking turn by a legislator in a hearing transcript. I exclude witness statements, opening statements, and evidence submitted for the record. The resulting dataset includes 1,410,292 statements by 1,164 unique members across 24 committees. On average, legislators made 11 statements per hearing, and the average statement length is 96 words.

To identify race-based hearing statements, I used a bigram dictionary classifier. To build the dictionary, I hand-coded a training set of 5,000 statements randomly sampled from the full corpus of hearing statements, labeling each for whether it contained a racial reference. From the race statements present in the training set, I extracted 536 race-related bigrams—two-word pairs that reference race either broadly (e.g., "people of color," "racial minority") or by naming specific groups (e.g., Black, Asian). I then applied this dictionary to the full corpus. If a corpus statement contained at least one race bigram, it was coded as a race statement. The method accurately identified race-based hearing statements in a validation set comparing hand-coded and bigram-labeled classifications (AUC = 0.9, $\kappa = 0.87$). Of the 1.4 million committee hearing statements, 11,860 referenced race. On average, legislators made 14 race statements per term, with an average length of 300 words.[6]

[5] I use hearing statements collected by Park (2021) for the 105th–114th Congresses. I worked alongside Park to clean hearing data for the 115th–117th Congresses.

[6] One concern is that legislators may mention race not only as a form of representation but also in explicitly negative or racist ways. I address this possibility by coding for negative and neutral race statements in a training set of 5,000 randomly sampled race statements. Statements were coded as negative if the legislator spoke about nonwhite individuals in a negative or racist way, and neutral otherwise. Ninety-eight percent of all race statements were coded as neutral, meaning that the overwhelming majority were not explicitly negative. As a result, I do not incorporate tone as an independent variable in this analysis.

To measure evidence usage, I conducted a detailed content analysis of all 11,860 race statements to determine whether they cite evidence and, if so, the specific source referenced. I define evidence usage as a legislator citing a credible source to substantiate a claim.[7] Credible sources include materials produced by government, academic, journalistic, or expert entities. Legislators cited the following source types most frequently: executive branch reports and rules (35%), legislation (32%), witness testimony (8%), interest group reports (7%), court rulings (4%), news articles (4%), and academic scholarship (3%).[8]

My definition of evidence is theoretically distinct from personal experience. Existing work demonstrates that legislators' personal backgrounds and lived experiences shape their behavior as representatives (e.g., Burden 2007). Those experiences may reflect early life, education, health, or prior occupations, and thus shape legislators' issue priorities once in Congress. Unlike those prior experiences, which were formative before legislators entered office, evidence is typically sought out and cited during legislative service. Although legislators' experiences certainly shape their behavior, evidence usage is a more appropriate measure for testing my argument because it captures a form of acquired knowledge that may emerge through interactions with colleagues in committee hearings.

I also do not analyze witness statements. Instead, the dataset includes only statements made by legislators. My theory proposes that repeated and sustained contact between white Democrats and nonwhite legislators may lead white Democrats to use more evidence when discussing race. Because witnesses often appear in only a single hearing, repeated and sustained contact does not occur frequently between legislators and witnesses.[9]

I coded legislators' statements that met these criteria as evidence statements and extracted both

[7]Importantly, my definition of evidence differs from work measuring information in congressional committee hearings (Ban, Park and You 2024). Legislators *cite* evidence to make and defend arguments, while they *acquire* information through witness testimony, experts, staff, and other sources.

[8]Although rules and legislation are products of legislative and administrative processes, when lawmakers cite them, they are using them as sources invoked to substantiate a claim, consistent with my definition of evidence. For example, a legislator might cite the Voting Rights Act to argue that, despite federal interventions, racial disparities in political participation or representation persist and may require additional legislative action.

[9]Legislators do cite witness testimony in their committee hearing statements as evidence. If legislators cite a testimony that includes both a claim and a source, I count it as evidence usage.

the source category (e.g., court case) and the specific source (e.g., *Shelby County v. Holder*). Statements that relied on unsupported claims or made no claim were coded as non-evidence statements. This approach is conservative by design and may undercount cases in which a source is implied by context or mentioned by the legislator earlier in the hearing. Still, merely making a claim is not sufficient to classify a statement as evidence-based: without an explicit citation, it is unclear whether the claim is grounded in evidence or simply asserted. The measure should therefore be interpreted as a lower-bound estimate of evidence usage rather than an exhaustive measure of all evidence-informed discussion. This is one of several ways to measure evidence, but I adopt it because it prioritizes validity and replicability.

Table 1 illustrates the coding decisions associated with three variations of the same race statement. I coded the first statement as evidence-based because it cites a source—the Census Bureau—to support a claim (i.e., African Americans were undercounted in the Census). The second version is not coded as evidence-based because it lacks a citation. The third neither cites a source nor makes a claim. Although misclassification is less of a concern because I manually read and coded all statements, Section 2 of the appendix assesses the measure's face validity and confirms that it accurately captures evidence usage.

Table 1: Coding Evidence-Based Race Statements

Coding Decision	Source	Race Statement
Evidence Statement	Census Bureau	"During the last census count in 2010, the **Census Bureau** found that *African Americans were under-counted by over 800,000*."
Non-Evidence Statement	—	"During the last census count in 2010, *African Americans were under-counted by over 800,000*."
Non-Evidence Statement	—	"I'm deeply concerned that African Americans are being undercounted in the Census. Does the Bureau have a goal or plan to improve the Black undercount and increase participation?"

Note: Examples are based on a statement made by Representative Steven Horsford (D-NV) in an Oversight Committee hearing in the 116th Congress.

After determining whether each race statement cited evidence, I created two dependent variables. The first, **Evidence**, is a count of the total number of evidence-based race statements a legislator makes in each committee-term.[10] This variable ranges from 0 to 19, with a mean of 1.05. The second variable, **Matching Sources**, is a count of the number of unique sources that a white lawmaker cites in the second half of a congressional term that were cited by any nonwhite lawmaker serving on the same committee in the first half of that term. For example, suppose that during the first half of the 117th Congress, nonwhite members of the House Judiciary Committee cite *Shelby County v. Holder*, the Voting Rights Advancement Act, and the Census Bureau. If a white Judiciary member cites those same three sources during the second half of the term, that member receives a value of 3. Because the unit of analysis is the legislator–committee–term, this is not a dyadic measure linking a white member to a particular nonwhite member. Instead, it captures whether white legislators' later-term citations draw on the set of sources introduced in committee discourse by nonwhite members earlier in the same term. **Matching Sources** ranges from 0 to 3, with a mean of 0.475.

Because both variables are right-skewed, I transform each by adding one and taking the natural log to better approximate a normal distribution. After this transformation, **Evidence** ranges from 0 to 2.996, with a mean of 0.50, and **Matching Sources** ranges from 0 to 2.2, with a mean of 0.75. I use the logged versions of both dependent variables in all in-text models.[11]

[10] I intentionally do not construct this variable at the statement level. Legislators' statements within a hearing are not independent. Rather, lawmakers often engage in dialogue with witnesses throughout their allotted speaking time, meaning multiple statements from the same legislator may be connected (Eldes, Fong and Lowande 2024). Therefore, calculating this variable at the member-committee-term level best reflects the structure of committee hearing discussions. Since many statements by the same lawmaker may be similar, I clustered standard errors by legislator in all models.

[11] In Section 5 of the appendix, I present summary statistics that describe the skewness of each variable. I also re-estimate the models presented in the main text using the non-transformed variables. The results, presented in Appendix Tables 5.2 and 5.3, are consistent with those reported in the main text.

Results

Descriptive Findings

Although evidence-based race statements are somewhat more common during Democratic majorities (110th, 111th, 116th, and 117th Congresses), variation across terms is minimal. Table 2 shows that legislators make, on average, one to two evidence-based race statements per term. And while the total number of evidence-based race statements per term is modest, approximately half of legislators in the dataset make at least one in a given term (see Table 2, column 4). In most terms, more than 60% of Democrats make at least one evidence-based race statement (see Table 2, column 5). In the 110th Congress, for example, two-thirds of all legislators and nearly three-quarters of Democrats made at least one evidence-based race statement. Together, these patterns suggest that evidence usage in discussions of race is modest in absolute terms, but not limited to a small set of lawmakers.

Evidence-based race statements occur across all committees, though their prevalence varies. The highest shares of race statements that include evidence appear in the Education (35.3%), Natural Resources (31.0%), Judiciary (30.4%), Ways and Means (28.3%), and Financial Services (27.5%) Committees. Descriptively, these committees span several policy domains in which race-related issues often arise in congressional debate, including education and labor policy, tribal affairs and environmental justice, civil rights and immigration, taxation and social welfare, and housing, banking, and consumer finance. Although evidence-based race statements are concentrated in certain committees, these descriptive patterns do not by themselves explain the relationship between committee racial diversity and evidence-based race statements.

Table 2: Average Number of Evidence-Based Race Statements Per Term

Term		Party in Majority	Mean Evidence-Based Race Statements Per Legislator	% of Legislators Making At Least One Evidence-Based Race Statement	% of Democrats Making At Least One Evidence-Based Race Statement	Range
105	(1997)	R	0.698	47.2%	63%	0 – 3
106	(1999)	R	0.902	49.6%	51.9%	0 – 15
107	(2001)	R	1.32	66.3%	69.8%	0 – 11
108	(2003)	R	1.71	62.4%	70.3%	0 – 11
109	(2005)	R	1.79	62.2%	70.9%	0 – 14
110	(2007)	D	2.07	65.7%	71.7%	0 – 23
111	(2009)	D	1.81	60.7%	67.4%	0 – 21
112	(2011)	R	1.35	58.2%	69.9%	0 – 11
113	(2013)	R	0.970	48.8%	55.1%	0 – 7
114	(2015)	R	1.13	56.1%	61.5%	0 – 10
115	(2017)	R	0.742	46.2%	59.8%	0 – 6
116	(2019)	D	1.55	51.6%	56.8%	0 – 19
117	(2021)	D	1.44	52.3%	59.6%	0 – 21

Note: Evidence-based race statements are infrequent, though a majority of legislators—particularly Democrats—make at least one per term. Table 2 includes the mean number of evidence-based race statements made by each legislator across all terms and the average maximum and minimum value per term. Column 4 displays the percentage of legislators making at least one evidence-based race statement per term. Column 5 reports the percentage of Democrats making at least one evidence-based race statement per term.

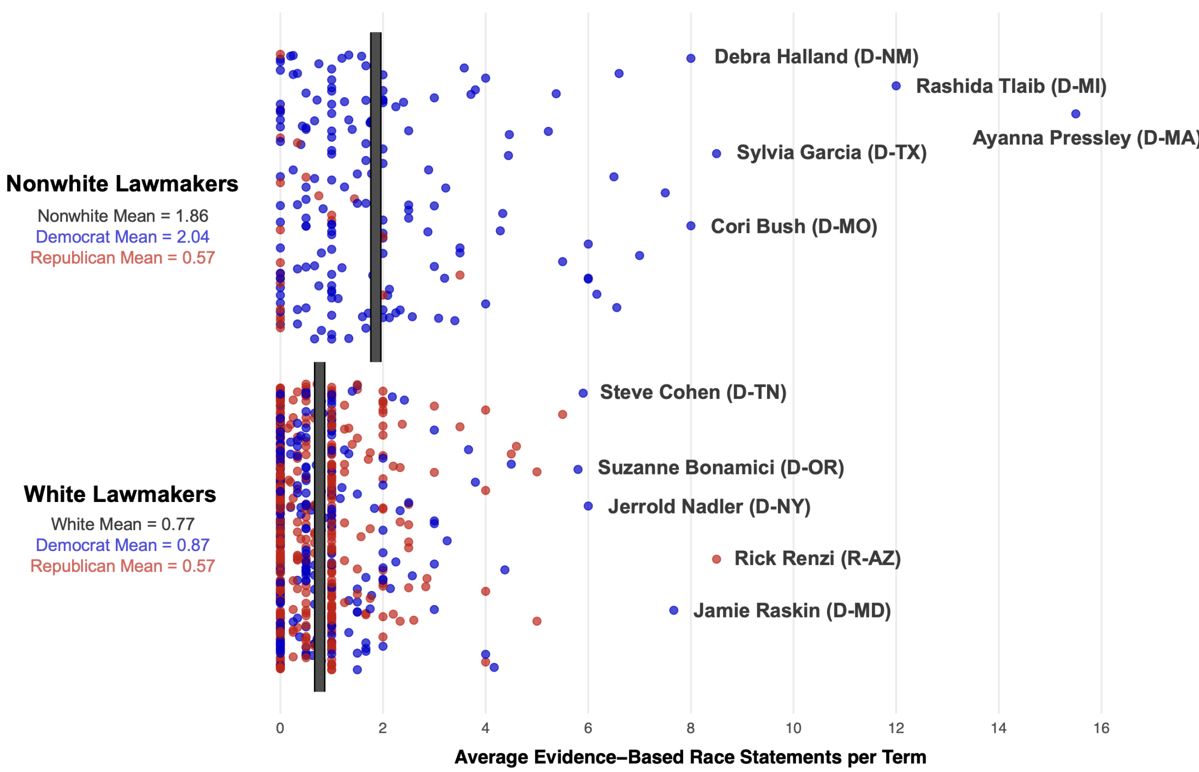
Evidence-based race statements are also not distributed evenly across members: nonwhite and Democratic lawmakers consistently make more evidence-based race statements than their white and Republican colleagues. Figure 1 plots the average number of evidence-based race statements per term by lawmakers' race and party. Each dot represents an individual lawmaker, with blue dots indicating Democrats and red dots indicating Republicans. On average, nonwhite legislators make nearly two evidence-based race statements per term, compared to fewer than one for white legislators.[12] While this difference may appear modest, it is substantively meaningful given that the overall average is only about one evidence-based race statement per term.

Figure 1 also highlights a strong partisan divide: Democrats—regardless of race—are more likely than Republicans to incorporate evidence when discussing race. Nonwhite Democrats, for

[12]This finding holds in a multivariate model with member-level controls and term fixed effects. In Appendix Table 4.3, I regress the number of evidence-based race statements per term on an indicator for whether a lawmaker is nonwhite. The coefficient is positive and statistically significant (β = 0.249, p = 0.00), suggesting that nonwhite lawmakers are significantly more likely than white lawmakers to use evidence when discussing race in committee hearings.

instance, make one and a half more evidence-based race statements per term than nonwhite Republicans. Notably, the nonwhite lawmakers most likely to cite evidence are all women of color, which is consistent with existing research showing that Black women often collaborate to highlight racial and gender issues (Brown 2014). Ayanna Pressley (D-MA) and Rashida Tlaib (D-MI) made more than ten evidence-based race statements per term, while Sylvia Garcia (D-TX), Debra Haaland (D-NM), and Cori Bush (D-MO) made more than five. Among white lawmakers, Democrats were most likely to reference evidence—an exception being Rick Renzi (R-AZ), who represented the Navajo Nation and Hopi Reservation.

Figure 1: Average Evidence-Based Race Statements By Race and Party



Note: Each dot in the jitter plot represents a unique lawmaker and indicates their average number of evidence-based race statements made per term. Blue dots indicate Democrats; red dots represent Republicans. The solid gray line indicates the mean value for each panel. Nonwhite lawmakers, on average, make one additional evidence-based race statement per term compared to white lawmakers. Democrats, on average, make more such statements than Republicans. This finding remains robust in a multivariate model with member-level controls and term fixed effects (see Appendix Table 4.3).

Model Estimation

White Democrats Cite More Evidence on Diverse Committees

To estimate the relationship between committee racial diversity and evidence-based race statements, I exploit within-legislator variation across committees. Legislator fixed effects control for time-invariant member characteristics, and term fixed effects absorb unobserved confounders that vary across congressional terms. As a result, identification comes from changes in the racial composition of a legislator's committees. I do not include committee fixed effects because the key predictor—the share of nonwhite members on each committee—varies at the committee level. Instead, I control for whether a committee is a power committee (Appropriations, Ways and Means, Budget, and Judiciary) and for whether the committee's *primary* jurisdiction encompasses race-related issues, particularly civil rights and minority issues, social welfare, and Native American affairs (Minta and Sinclair-Chapman 2013; Ellis and Wilson 2013; Minta 2009). Using this definition, I classify Judiciary, Ways and Means, and Natural Resources as race-jurisdiction committees.[13] I also control for two additional committee-level features—the number of hearings held and the number of bills referred in a term—that proxy for workload and the breadth of committee jurisdiction. Under this specification, the estimates are identified net of stable differences across legislators, committee jurisdiction, and common changes across congressional terms.[14]

[13] Defining whether a committee's primary jurisdiction is race-related is necessarily difficult. Because my outcome variable measures how frequently race and evidence-based race statements are referenced in committees, I need to define race-jurisdiction committees ex ante rather than based on my own measures. To do so, I identify three committees whose formal jurisdictions most directly encompass the policy domains that the race-in-Congress literature most often treats as race-salient. I intentionally make this measure conservative. Every committee deals with race to some extent, but the purpose of this control variable is to identify the committees that are most likely to deal with race-related policies as a result of their jurisdictions. Judiciary is the clearest case because its jurisdiction directly encompasses civil rights, civil liberties, and immigration, making it the central committee for race-related legal and membership questions. Ways and Means is included because it has jurisdiction over major social service and income-support programs, and the literature treats social welfare as central to minority interests in Congress (Minta and Sinclair-Chapman 2013; Ellis and Wilson 2013). Natural Resources is included because its jurisdiction explicitly encompasses Native American affairs. Although other committees certainly address race-related issues (e.g., Education and Financial Services), these three are the primary committees whose formal jurisdictions most directly encompass race-related policy domains. If the findings hold with the addition of this control, that would suggest that the relationship between committee diversity and evidence-based race statements is not confined to committees whose jurisdictions most directly concern race-related issues.

[14] This identification strategy strengthens inference but does not establish causality. Although legislator and term fixed effects absorb stable differences across members and common shocks across terms, they do not account for

To test my first hypothesis, I estimate six OLS regression models with legislator fixed effects, each with and without term fixed effects.[15] Table 3 reports the results. The dependent variable is **Evidence**. In columns 1 and 2, it is the natural log of the total number of evidence-based race statements made by white legislators in each committee-term; in columns 3 and 4, the models include only white Democrats; and in columns 5 and 6 only white Republicans. The independent variable of interest is the proportion of nonwhite lawmakers on each committee (0-1).[16] Standard errors are robust and clustered by legislator.[17]

Model estimates indicate that white lawmakers make more evidence-based race statements as the proportion of nonwhite lawmakers on their committee increases (β = 0.69; p = 0.00). As expected, however, the coefficient is largest in models subset to only white Democrats, who are most likely to meet the conditions necessary for contact effects (β = 1.01; p = 0.01). In substantive terms, the models predict that a 10 percentage point increase in nonwhite committee membership is associated with a 10.6% increase in the number of evidence-based race statements made by white Democrats. Although this estimated change is modest in absolute terms, it is meaningful in context. Evidence-based race speech is uncommon for most members: on average, nonwhite lawmakers make roughly two evidence-based race statements per term, and many white members make none. Against that baseline, the model-implied increase of one additional evidence-based race statement per term for white Democrats on highly diverse committees represents a meaningful behavioral shift. In models limited to white Republicans, the coefficient is not statistically significant.

This relationship is independent of factors that differ across white lawmakers and of changes

within-term, member-level unobservables.

[15]Two-way fixed effects rely on the assumption of linear additive effects (Imai and Kim 2021), which may be violated when including both unit- and time-specific fixed effects. To assess this, I also estimate each model in Table 3 without term fixed effects (Columns 2, 4, and 6). The results are consistent across both specifications.

[16]In models without legislator and/or term fixed effects, I include a variety of control variables, including member-level characteristics that could theoretically vary over time—such as party identification, district racial diversity, ideology, seniority, and vote share—all of which may influence white lawmakers' use of evidence. I also control for majority party status and the overall racial diversity of the House, as both factors may shape whether race-based evidence is referenced. Table 3.1 in the appendix reports this model with all controls included.

[17]The unit of analysis is the legislator–committee–term. Because the dependent variable is evidence use within race-related hearing statements, legislators who never discuss race in committee hearings are not included in the data set. This explains why the number of observations in regression models is smaller than if all legislators were included during my time series.

across congressional terms. It is also not driven by whether the committee is powerful, falls within a race-related jurisdiction, holds more hearings, or has more bills referred to it. The results presented in Table 3 remain robust across several alternative specifications, including models that drop legislator fixed effects, use the proportion of evidence-based race statements out of total race statements as the dependent variable, and use the non-logged dependent variable. Importantly, I also show that committee diversity does not predict greater evidence usage among white Democrats in non-race statements (see Appendix Section 9). This suggests that, as expected, the relationship between committee racial diversity and evidence usage among white Democrats is specific to discussions of race.[18]

[18]In Sections 4 and 5 of the appendix, I demonstrate that this result is consistent across three alternative model specifications. First, Appendix Table 4.1 reports a model without legislator fixed effects, instead interacting a binary indicator for white lawmakers with the percentage of nonwhite lawmakers on the committee. Second, Appendix Table 4.2 uses a dependent variable measuring the proportion of evidence-based to total race statements. Third, Appendix Table 5.2 presents results using the original, non-transformed dependent variable. Across all three specifications, the results remain largely consistent with the main findings reported in the main text. In Section 9 of the appendix, I describe my empirical strategy for measuring evidence usage in non-race statements and report findings.

Table 3: White Democrats Make More Evidence-Based Race Statements on Racially Diverse Committees

	Evidence (White Lawmaker)		Evidence (White Democrat)		Evidence (White Republican)	
	1	2	3	4	5	6
Proportion of Nonwhite Legislators on Committee	**0.686****	**0.801***	**1.006***	**0.964***	0.428	0.375
	(0.266)	(0.327)	(0.404)	(0.479)	(0.381)	(0.514)
Power Committee	0.134*	0.178**	0.159†	0.278**	0.124*	0.039
	(0.057)	(0.066)	(0.097)	(0.100)	(0.063)	(0.082)
Race Committee	0.011	−0.071	−0.112	−0.203*	0.138*	0.130
	(0.051)	(0.065)	(0.077)	(0.093)	(0.062)	(0.105)
# of Hearings	0.001**	0.001	0.002*	0.002*	0.001†	−0.0002
	(0.0004)	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)
# of Bills Referred	0.0001*	0.0001†	0.0002*	0.0002†	0.00001	0.00000
	(0.0001)	(0.0001)	(0.0001)	(0.0001)	(0.0001)	(0.0001)
Intercept	0.353**	2.018***	0.013	−0.605	0.378*	0.457
	(0.131)	(0.586)	(0.162)	(0.776)	(0.161)	(1.426)
Legislator Fixed Effects	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Term Fixed Effects	✓		✓		✓	
Full Controls (Appendix)		✓		✓		✓
R^2	0.443	0.491	0.445	0.505	0.457	0.501
Adjusted R^2	0.149	0.123	0.206	0.204	0.094	0.039
Observations	1,935	1,181	875	575	1,060	606

† p<0.1; * p<0.05; ** p<0.01; *** p<0.001

Note: White Democrats cite more race-based evidence statements as the percentage of nonwhite lawmakers on their committees increases. The dependent variable is the natural log of the total number of evidence-based statements made by a white lawmaker in a given committee-term (DV = ln(Evidence + 1)). Standard errors are robust and clustered by legislator. **Full model reported in Appendix 3.1.**

Legislators Cite Similar Sources of Evidence on Diverse Committees

My second hypothesis posits that contact effects should also prompt white lawmakers on diverse committees to cite the same sources of evidence as their nonwhite colleagues. To test this expectation, I pair descriptive evidence from two committees—the Education and Labor Committee and the Judiciary Committee in the 116th Congress—with estimates from within-legislator OLS regression models. I descriptively analyze the sources cited in these committees for two reasons. First, they vary in racial composition: about one-fourth of Education and Labor members are nonwhite—roughly the House average— compared to nearly 40% of Judiciary Committee members. Second, both committees play a significant role in policymaking, oversee consequential policy jurisdictions, and frequently engage in discussions about race.

Consistent with my expectation, white and nonwhite legislators frequently cited the same sources of evidence on the Judiciary Committee (the Department of Justice, the Equality Act, *Shelby County v. Holder*, and the FBI), but not on the Education and Labor Committee (see Table 4). Indeed, *Brown v. Board of Education* was the only overlapping source cited by both white and nonwhite members on the Education and Labor Committee throughout the term. This pattern, of course, does not suggest that lawmakers on less diverse committees cite irrelevant or unimportant sources. Both white and nonwhite legislators in the Education and Labor Committee frequently referenced significant and timely evidence, including the Civil Rights Act, the Affordable Care Act, and the Fair Labor Standards Act. Instead, the finding suggests that racial diversity within a committee influences the type of evidence white lawmakers cite.

Table 4: Similar Source Citations on Committee with Average and High % of Nonwhite Lawmakers

Education and Labor (116th Congress) ***24%** Nonwhite Legislators on Committee (Average)*		**Judiciary (116th Congress)** ***39%** Nonwhite Legislators on Committee (High)*	
Top Sources Nonwhite Lawmakers	**Top Sources White Lawmakers**	**Top Sources Nonwhite Lawmakers**	**Top Sources White Lawmakers**
Brown v. Board	**Brown v. Board**	**DOJ**	**DOJ**
Paycheck Fairness Act	Civil Rights Act	**Equality Act**	**Equality Act**
DOL	Equal Pay Act	**Shelby County v. Holder**	**Shelby County v. Holder**
Brookings	Government Accountability Office	**FBI**	**FBI**
Commonwealth Fund	Affordable Care Act	Pew	Voting Rights Act
Fair Labor Standards Act	AFL-CIO	Commission to Study Reparations	SUCCESS Act
Federal Reserve	America's College Promise Act	Local Law Enforcement Hate Crimes Prevention Act	Bend the Arc
Maternal CARE Act	Bridge Magazine	National Institute of Standards and Technology	Census Bureau
Religious Freedom Restoration Act	Bureau of Labor Statistics	Social Security Act	Center for Police Equity

Note: White and nonwhite lawmakers are more likely to cite the same sources on the Judiciary committee (39% nonwhite lawmakers) than the Education and Labor committee (24% nonwhite lawmakers). The table reports the nine sources most frequently cited by white and nonwhite lawmakers on two committees in the 116th Congress.

When I model the relationship systematically, the multivariate analysis is consistent with the descriptive results (see Table 5).[19] Here again, I use a within-legislator identification strategy. The

[19] In Appendix Table 5.3, I estimate the same model using the non-transformed dependent variable. The results are

dependent variable, **Matching Sources**, is the natural log of the count of unique sources cited by a white lawmaker in the second half of a term that also appear in the set of sources cited by nonwhite legislators on the same committee in the first half of the term. The key independent variable is the committee's proportion of nonwhite members. I estimate six OLS regression models—each with and without term fixed effects and the same committee-specific controls. To account for the possibility that legislators have more opportunities to match sources as committee diversity increases, I control for (i) the total number of unique sources cited by nonwhite lawmakers in the first half of the term—since white lawmakers can only match sources that are introduced early in the term—and (ii) the total number of unique sources cited by the white lawmaker in the second half of the term, since white legislators who cite more sources overall are more likely to overlap with sources already cited.[20]

The results reported in Table 5 indicate that White Democrats serving on committees with a higher share of nonwhite members are more likely to cite, in the second half of the term, sources that nonwhite committee members cited in the first half. This relationship is positive and statistically significant for white Democrats (β = 0.39; p = 0.05) but not statistically significant for white Republicans (β = 0.1; p = 0.59). Substantively, moving from a predominantly white committee to a racially diverse committee is associated with a shift from zero to one matching source, which, given the range of the variable (0-3), represents a meaningful change in which evidence lawmakers choose to invoke.

I also estimate an additional specification using **Non-Matching Sources**—defined as the number of unique sources a white member cites in the second half of a term that do not appear in the first-half nonwhite source set—as the dependent variable. If white legislators' non-matching sources decline as committee diversity increases, this pattern is consistent with a reallocation in citation choices, indicating that white members' second-half citation portfolios shift toward sources

consistent.

[20] A potential concern is that matching increases mechanically on more diverse committees simply because there are more nonwhite members. However, a larger nonwhite presence does not necessarily increase overlap: white lawmakers may still cite entirely distinct sources. Moreover, conditioning on the size of the first-half nonwhite source set and the white member's second-half citation volume implies that the estimated association is not driven by differences in citation quantity.

previously referenced by nonwhite colleagues rather than simply expanding to include additional sources. Appendix Table 4.9 demonstrates that white legislators' non-matching sources decrease as committee diversity increases (β = -0.33; p = 0.04). Taken together, these results suggest that on more diverse committees, white Democrats' citation portfolios shift over time: they become more likely to cite sources introduced earlier by nonwhite lawmakers and less likely to rely on sources outside that set. This is consistent with the idea that white legislators adapt their evidence to align with sources used by nonwhite lawmakers.

Table 5: Nonwhite and White Legislators Cite Similar Sources on Racially Diverse Committees

	Matching Sources (White Lawmakers)		**Matching Sources (White Democrats)**		**Matching Sources (White Republicans)**	
	1	2	3	4	5	6
Proportion of Nonwhite Lawmakers on Committee	**0.243**†	0.236	**0.392***	**0.505**†	0.102	−0.072
	(0.140)	(0.181)	(0.200)	(0.276)	(0.189)	(0.272)
Total Race Statements	−0.006*	−0.008*	−0.005	−0.009*	−0.006	0.001
	(0.003)	(0.004)	(0.004)	(0.004)	(0.005)	(0.006)
Total Nonwhite Unique Sources (1st Half of Term)	0.004*	0.004*	0.001	0.001	0.006**	0.004
	(0.002)	(0.002)	(0.002)	(0.003)	(0.002)	(0.003)
Total White Unique Sources (2nd Half of Term)	0.327***	0.356***	0.294***	0.293***	0.362***	0.447***
	(0.016)	(0.026)	(0.025)	(0.032)	(0.018)	(0.024)
Power Committee	−0.040†	−0.054†	−0.044	−0.083*	−0.049	−0.018
	(0.021)	(0.031)	(0.029)	(0.039)	(0.034)	(0.040)
Race Committee	0.022	0.048	0.028	0.046	0.006	0.032
	(0.023)	(0.035)	(0.032)	(0.050)	(0.035)	(0.045)
# of Hearings	0.00004	0.0002	0.0001	0.0003	−0.00002	0.0005†
	(0.0002)	(0.0002)	(0.0002)	(0.0004)	(0.0002)	(0.0003)
# of Bills Referred	0.00001	0.00004	0.00003	0.0001	0.00002	0.00003
	(0.00003)	(0.00003)	(0.00004)	(0.0001)	(0.00004)	(0.00004)
Intercept	−0.346***	−0.267	0.171**	0.029	−0.407***	0.368
	(0.074)	(0.351)	(0.062)	(0.321)	(0.100)	(0.577)
Legislator Fixed Effects	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Term Fixed Effects	✓		✓		✓	
Full Controls (Appendix)		✓		✓		✓
R^2	0.710	0.769	0.686	0.742	0.744	0.846
Adjusted R^2	0.556	0.601	0.549	0.582	0.570	0.701
Observations	1,935	1,181	875	575	1,060	606

† p<0.1; * p<0.05; ** p<0.01; *** p<0.001

Note: White Democrats on more racially diverse committees are more likely to cite, in the second half of a term, the same evidence sources that nonwhite committee members cited earlier in the term. The dependent variable is the natural log of the total number of sources cited by white lawmakers that were also cited by nonwhite lawmakers in a committee-term. Standard errors are robust and clustered by legislator. **Full model reported in Appendix 3.2.**

Addressing Alternative Explanations

The results from Tables 3, 4, and 5 indicate that white Democrats are more likely to cite evidence—and to cite the same types of evidence as nonwhite lawmakers—when serving on racially diverse committees. There are three primary alternative explanations that could confound this relationship: committee selection, race-relevant committee jurisdiction, and race-specific informational environments. I address each through a series of additional analyses.

First, committee selection is a concern because white lawmakers who are predisposed to discuss race may also be more likely to serve on racially diverse committees. As a result, race-based citations could reflect prior experience or expertise rather than the effects of committee diversity itself. I address this concern in several ways. All models include legislator fixed effects, which absorb stable member-level characteristics that could jointly predict committee placement and evidence use, such as prior race-based issue expertise, lived experience, policy priorities, and electoral incentives. In addition, all in-text models control for whether the committee falls within a race-relevant jurisdiction. As a result, the main findings should be interpreted as independent of whether a legislator serves on a race-relevant committee. I also estimate two "stayers" samples: one that restricts the sample to legislators who remain on the same committee for at least three consecutive terms, and another that restricts the sample to the first committee on which each legislator served for three consecutive terms (see Appendix Tables 7.1 and 7.3). These models hold jurisdiction constant and reduce concerns that switching into racially diverse committees drives the results. Finally, I estimate a model that excludes first-term legislators, the period in which lawmakers are most likely to sort into race-relevant committees (see Appendix Table 7.2). In all three models with legislator and term fixed effects, the coefficient for white Democrats is positive and statistically significant. Although these models do not fully eliminate concerns about committee selection, the specification of the in-text models and the consistency of the results across all three additional tests make it difficult to interpret the findings as driven by committee selection alone.

Second, a related concern is that white Democrats may cite more evidence-based race statements on racially diverse committees because those committees are more likely to have jurisdiction over race-related bills, which may increase the amount of race-based discussion that occurs. To address this concern, I control in the main models for whether a committee is a race-jurisdiction committee, defined ex ante based on existing work. I also estimate two additional tests. First, because determining whether a committee falls within a race-relevant jurisdiction is inherently subjective, and because race-relevant jurisdiction may vary over time even within the same committee, I include a lagged measure of the total number of race statements made in each committee-term (see Appendix Table 8.1). Second, I re-estimate the main model within single committees—Judiciary and Oversight—to hold committee jurisdiction constant (see Appendix Table 8.2). In both models with legislator and term fixed effects, the relationship between committee diversity and evidence-based race statements remains substantively similar for white Democrats.[21]

Third, white Democrats may make more evidence-based race statements on diverse committees because those committees transmit more race-related information from sources other than nonwhite lawmakers. Members of the same committee hear the same witnesses, receive similar staff briefings, confront the same policy agenda, and may also be exposed to common guidance or background materials distributed by party and committee leaders (Gaynor 2025). Therefore, white and nonwhite lawmakers may cite similar evidence not because white members learn directly from nonwhite colleagues, but because they are exposed to the same race-related information and communication cues behind the scenes. To address this concern, I re-estimate the main model while controlling for the lagged number of unique race-related sources cited in the committee in the prior term (see Appendix Table 8.3). This allows me to estimate the association between committee diversity and current evidence use net of the committee's earlier race-related informational environment. The results are consistent with the in-text models for white Democrats (β = 0.99; p = 0.02). This is not a direct test of whether white Democrats receive race-related information from behind-the-scenes sources such as committee staff or party leaders, but it does help address the pos-

[21] It is important to note that, in the lagged race-statements model, the coefficient is statistically significant at the 0.08 level. In the model limited to the Judiciary Committee, the coefficient is statistically significant at the 0.09 level. In both cases, the sample size is smaller—because one model includes a lagged variable and the other is estimated within a single committee—which likely explains why the coefficients do not reach statistical significance at the 0.05 level.

sibility that the results simply reflect durable differences in committees' race-related informational environments. Therefore, although none of these tests fully eliminates all alternative explanations, the consistency of the results across these specifications strengthens the main findings and reduces concerns that they are driven solely by committee selection, jurisdiction, or shared informational exposure.

A Temporal Test of Learning: Prior-Term Diversity and Current Evidence Use

One potential mechanism explaining why white Democrats cite more race-related evidence and matching sources on racially diverse committees is that they learn from nonwhite colleagues' discussions of race. Despite the intuitive appeal of this claim, alternative mechanisms could also generate the results reported above. White Democrats, for instance, may adapt their speech to appeal to nonwhite lawmakers or to signal attentiveness to race-related concerns without actually acquiring new information. To probe whether learning is one plausible mechanism, I leverage temporal variation in exposure to nonwhite lawmakers in committees. If learning is occurring, prior committee diversity should predict current evidence use even when current diversity is held constant.

I estimate six OLS regression models with legislator fixed effects, both with and without term fixed effects. The dependent variable, **Evidence**, is estimated separately for white Democrats (Table 6, Columns 3–4) and white Republicans (Columns 5–6). The key independent variable, **Prop. Nonwhite on Committee in Prior Term** $(t-1)$, measures, for each legislator–committee–term observation, the proportion of nonwhite members on that legislator's committee in the prior term. I retain this variable only for legislators who served on the same committee in consecutive terms. I also control for the proportion of nonwhite lawmakers on each committee in the current term (t), along with the standard committee-level controls used in prior models.

The results are consistent with my third hypothesis and with the possibility that white Democrats learn from their nonwhite colleagues. In models restricted to white Democrats, the coefficient is positive, statistically significant, and substantively large. A 10-percentage-point increase in nonwhite representation in the prior term is associated with a 28.9% increase in the number of evidence-based race statements made in the current term, holding current-term committee diversity constant.[22] These findings are robust to models estimated with non-logged dependent variables (Appendix Table 5.4). They also hold when restricting the sample to committees in which legislators are most likely to grandstand (e.g., Budget, Ways and Means, and Judiciary) (Park 2021), suggesting that the relationship is not limited to settings in which performative comments are uncommon (Appendix Table 4.5). Finally, additional models indicate that committee diversity does *not* predict increased evidence use by nonwhite lawmakers in the current term, which is consistent with my argument that nonwhite lawmakers already possess expertise that is shared with white Democrats on diverse committees (Appendix Table 4.4).

Although this test helps distinguish learning from explanations tied only to the current committee environment, it does not fully isolate learning from nonwhite colleagues as the only mechanism. Even among legislators serving on the same committee in consecutive terms, prior committee diversity may proxy for other durable features of committee service, including growing specialization in race-salient policy issues, changes in a member's role within the committee, the development of staff and informational networks, or strategic efforts to cultivate expertise on race-related issues over time. Accordingly, I interpret these results as consistent with a learning mechanism, while recognizing that they do not fully rule out all alternative explanations.

[22] Notably, the model estimated for white Republicans has a p-value ≤ 0.1; however, I caution against interpreting this as evidence of a positive and statistically significant effect. The adjusted R^2 for this model is negative, suggesting that the model fits the data poorly, either because it is overfit or because the sample size is too small. Because this model uses a lagged variable, the sample size is reduced, which may help explain the poor fit.

Table 6: Past Committee Diversity Predicts Present Evidence Use

	Evidence (White Lawmakers)		Evidence (White Democrats)		Evidence (White Republicans)	
	1	2	3	4	5	6
% Nonwhite on Committee in Prior Term (t−1)	**1.992****	1.326	**2.535***	**1.935†**	1.784†	1.482
	(0.694)	(0.809)	(0.994)	(0.997)	(1.008)	(0.984)
% Nonwhite on Committee in Current Term (t)	1.268	1.474	1.719	1.066	2.378	2.595
	(1.086)	(1.159)	(1.531)	(1.776)	(1.915)	(1.998)
% Nonwhite in District	−0.203	−0.211	0.068	−3.496*	−0.779	0.690
	(0.904)	(0.883)	(1.911)	(1.709)	(1.166)	(1.188)
Power Committee	0.126	0.173	0.077	−0.078	0.778	0.991
	(0.244)	(0.259)	(0.250)	(0.249)	(0.812)	(0.851)
Race Committee	−0.085	−0.095	−0.118	0.131	−0.256	−0.266
	(0.270)	(0.283)	(0.243)	(0.236)	(0.748)	(0.746)
# of Hearings	0.003*	0.003*	0.004*	0.003*	0.0001	−0.001
	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.002)	(0.002)	(0.002)	(0.003)
# of Bills Referred	0.0002	0.0002	0.0003	0.0003	−0.001†	−0.001†
	(0.0002)	(0.0002)	(0.0002)	(0.0002)	(0.0004)	(0.0005)
Intercept	−0.360	−1.144	−2.011**	−10.647	0.862	1.805
	(1.034)	(11.844)	(0.755)	(15.128)	(1.112)	(17.833)
Legislator Fixed Effects	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Term Fixed Effects	✓		✓		✓	
Full Controls (Appendix)		✓		✓		✓
R^2	0.636	0.637	0.700	0.707	0.600	0.604
Adjusted R^2	0.175	0.169	0.288	0.298	−0.061	−0.062
Observations	368	367	200	200	168	167

† p<0.1; * p<0.05; ** p<0.01; *** p<0.001

Note: White Democrats exposed to racially diverse committees in the prior term (t - 1) continue to cite more evidence in the current term (t), net of current-term committee diversity. The dependent variable is the natural log of the total number of evidence-based race statements. Standard errors are robust and clustered by legislator. **Full model reported in Appendix 3.3.**

Race-Based Expertise Affects Substantive Representation

My final hypothesis examines whether race-based expertise is associated with substantive representation. I argue that legislators who frequently cite evidence when discussing race possess expertise on race-related issues, and I expect that one consequence of this expertise is that they will be more effective at advancing and passing the race bills they sponsor. To test this expectation, I scraped the full text of all 87,189 non-commemorative House bills introduced in the 105th–117th Congresses. To identify which bills reference race, I applied the same race-bigram dictionary used to code committee hearing statements. Using a common dictionary for both committee hearing statements and bill text ensures measurement equivalence and allows me to directly test the hypothesized relationship between race-related speech and expertise expressed in committee, the content of race bills, and the likelihood that those bills advance and pass. I validate this measure in Appendix Section 6.

A bill is coded as a race bill if it contains at least one race bigram.[23] Because my hypothesis concerns whether race is addressed—not how much of a bill is about race—a single reference is sufficient to identify race bills. This inclusive operationalization reflects the fact that expertise can shape targeted provisions or language even when a bill's main subject is not race. Likewise, a bill can afford substantive representation through a single sentence, clause, or amendment. As a robustness check, I re-estimate the models requiring bills to include three or more race references to be coded as race bills (Appendix Table 6.1). The results are consistent across both specifications. Of the 87,189 non-commemorative bills, 6,385 (7%) include at least one race bigram and are coded as race bills. Eighty percent of race bills were introduced by Democrats.

Table 7 reports five OLS models at the member–term level.[24] The models include term fixed effects, standard legislative-effectiveness controls, the total number of bills introduced, and legislator-clustered standard errors.[25] I also control for whether the legislator served on a committee with race-related jurisdiction during that term, which reduces concerns that race-based expertise only facilitates substantive representation for legislators who serve on committees where race is frequently discussed. The dependent variables measure the number of legislators' race bills that (1) received action in committee, (2) were reported out of committee, (3) passed the House, (4) passed

[23]The process of deriving these race bigrams is discussed in the first paragraph of the Data & Methods section. The top 100 most frequently mentioned race bigrams are reported in Appendix Section 6.

[24]The results of these models are consistent (except for "Passed House") when estimated using negative binomial count models (Appendix Table 4.6). They also remain consistent when including legislator fixed effects and dropping term fixed effects, which suggests that unobserved, time-invariant factors—such as legislator attributes, district characteristics, committee assignment, pre-existing race-based expertise, or staff quality—do not confound the relationship between race-based expertise and effective lawmaking on race bills (Appendix Table 4.7).

[25]Standard legislative-effectiveness controls include committee chair status; majority- or minority-party leadership status; subcommittee chair status; ideological distance from the floor median; prior service in a state legislature; gender; LGBTQ status; DW-NOMINATE score; seniority; majority-party status; lagged vote share; and total bill sponsorships.

both chambers, and (5) became law. The key predictor is the total number of evidence-based race statements a member makes per term.

As expected, the results indicate a positive association between race-based expertise and substantive representation on race bills. In three of the five stages—committee action, committee reporting, and House passage—the coefficients are positive and statistically significant. Substantively, each additional evidence-based race statement per term is associated with 0.023 more sponsored race bills passing the House. Put differently, 10 additional evidence-based race statements correspond to about 0.23 House-passed bills, and roughly 44 statements correspond to one additional House-passed bill per term. The substantive effect per evidence statement is modest, as it should be, but it accumulates meaningfully for legislators who consistently ground their race-related arguments in evidence, especially those who do so far more than the chamber average.

There is no statistically significant association between race-based expertise and race bills passing both chambers or becoming law. This is unsurprising, as fewer than five percent of sponsored bills are enacted, and House members' committee-stage expertise has little direct influence over Senate agenda control or voting. Nonetheless, the fact that legislators with race-related expertise move their bills further through the House suggests that such expertise facilitates substantive representation within the chamber, even if the bicameral structure of Congress often prevents ultimate enactment. Importantly, race-based expertise is unrelated to the advancement and passage of non-race legislation, suggesting that the relationship between expertise and effective lawmaking is specific to the issue area in which legislators have expertise (see Appendix Table 4.10). Likewise, the relationship holds when limiting a sponsor's bills to only those referred to committees on which the sponsor serves, suggesting that the association is not simply driven by committee jurisdiction or referral patterns, but persists even when the analysis is limited to bills for which sponsors plausibly possess both committee access and relevant policy expertise (see Appendix Table 4.8).[26]

[26]This finding is robust to several additional specifications. The results are similar when I use legislative effectiveness scores as an alternative measure of success on race bills (Volden and Wiseman 2014; Volden, Wiseman and Wittmer 2018) (Appendix Table 6.2). The relationship also remains positive and statistically significant when the sample is restricted to Democrats, but not Republicans (Appendix Table 4.10). To ensure that the race-bill measure does not combine bills that expand the rights of nonwhite Americans with bills that may restrict them, I also re-estimate the models separately under Democratic and Republican majorities. The association is positive and statistically signifi-

Table 7: Legislators Who Make More Evidence-Based Race Statements Are More Effective At Legislating Race Bills

	Action in Committee (Race Bills)	Action Beyond Committee (Race Bills)	Passed House (Race Bills)	Passed Both Chambers (Race Bills)	Became Law (Race Bills)
	1	2	3	4	5
Total Race-Based Evidence Statements	**0.039***	**0.035***	**0.023***	0.004	0.004
	(0.015)	(0.014)	(0.010)	(0.004)	(0.004)
Nonwhite	0.061	0.023	−0.030	−0.019	−0.019
	(0.066)	(0.057)	(0.040)	(0.019)	(0.019)
Democrat	−0.241	−0.222	−0.247*	−0.073	−0.073
	(0.163)	(0.133)	(0.097)	(0.052)	(0.052)
On Race Committee	0.068	0.008	0.003	−0.005	−0.005
	(0.054)	(0.046)	(0.032)	(0.015)	(0.015)
% Nonwhite in District	−0.176	−0.023	0.012	−0.033	−0.033
	(0.170)	(0.136)	(0.097)	(0.045)	(0.045)
Intercept	0.257	0.250	0.353	0.222	0.222
	(0.257)	(0.255)	(0.246)	(0.122)	(0.122)
Term Fixed Effects	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Full Controls (Appendix)	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
R^2	0.311	0.300	0.211	0.072	0.072
Adjusted R^2	0.297	0.286	0.195	0.053	0.053
Observations	1,344	1,344	1,344	1,344	1,344

$^{*}p<0.05$; $^{**}p<0.01$; $^{***}p<0.001$

Note: Lawmakers who make more evidence-based race statements are more effective at advancing and passing race bills. Standard errors are robust and clustered by legislator. **Full model reported in Table 3.4 in the appendix**.

Conclusion

Despite extensive research on the effects of nonwhite representation in Congress, we know much less about how committee racial diversity shapes interactions between nonwhite and white legislators—and whether those interactions influence white lawmakers' behavior. I demonstrate that, when serving on racially diverse committees, white Democrats are more likely to support

cant only under Democratic majorities, when race-related bills are also more likely to expand rights and protections for nonwhite Americans (Appendix Table 4.10). The results are similar in models that replace term fixed effects with legislator fixed effects (Appendix Table 4.7). Finally, to address concerns about endogeneity and reverse causality, I lag the number of evidence-based race statements and use it as the primary independent variable in the same model. The results are consistent, indicating that race-based expertise continues to strengthen legislators' ability. to advance and pass race-related legislation (see Appendix Table 4.11).

their race statements with evidence and to cite the same sources of evidence as their nonwhite colleagues. I also show that race-based expertise is associated with greater success in advancing and passing race-related legislation. Drawing on data from more than 11,000 committee hearing statements and 87,000 bills, I show that descriptive representation in committees can facilitate substantive representation in policymaking.

These relationships, however, are not uniform across parties. A clear partisan divide emerges in the results: the connection between cross-group contact in committee, race-based expertise, and substantive representation exists only for white Democrats. White Republicans are no more likely to cite evidence in diverse committees than in predominantly white ones. This pattern is not surprising, given that Democrats face stronger incentives—from both their party and their constituents—to engage in race-related representation (Grose 2011). At the same time, the contrast underscores that the effects of cross-group contact are conditional, emerging primarily among legislators who share relevant policy goals and partisan commitments.

The findings also help clarify what does *not* appear to drive race-based evidence usage. Notably, district racial composition does not predict race-based evidence usage. This is somewhat surprising, given that existing work on the distributive theory of committee organization debates the extent to which legislators' behavior in committee is shaped by electoral incentives (Lazarus 2010; Berry and Fowler 2016). In this case, however, the null relationship is more consistent with my argument that evidence use is shaped by information exchange and learning within committees than with an electoral account in which white Democrats cite race-based evidence primarily in response to district-level incentives.

Taken together, these results point to several avenues for future research. Beyond committee diversity, do legislators' lived experiences, occupational backgrounds, or district demographics foster expertise on race? Do witnesses in hearings shape lawmakers' engagement with race-related evidence? And do similar mechanisms operate for other underrepresented groups, such as women and LGBTQ+ legislators? Addressing these questions will help clarify whether, how, and for whom committee diversity interacts with expertise to shape substantive representation.

References

Allport, Gordon Willard, Kenneth Clark and Thomas Pettigrew. 1954. "The Nature of Prejudice.".

Ban, Pamela and Jaclyn Kaslovsky. 2025. "Local Orientation in the US House of Representatives." *American Journal of Political Science* 69(3):1082–1098.

Ban, Pamela, Ju Yeon Park and Hye Young You. 2023. "How Are Politicians Informed? Witnesses and Information Provision in Congress." *American Political Science Review* 117(1):122–139.

Ban, Pamela, Ju Yeon Park and Hye Young You. 2024. "Hearings on the Hill: The Politics of Informing Congress." *Cambridge University Press* .

Ban, Pamela, Ju Yeon Park and Hye Young You. 2026. "Bureaucrats in Congress: The Politics of Interbranch Information Sharing." *The Journal of Politics* 88(2):000–000.

Ban, Pamela, Justin Grimmer, Jaclyn Kaslovsky, Emily West et al. 2022. "How Does the Rising Number of Women in the US Congress Change Deliberation? Evidence from House Committee Hearings." *Quarterly Journal of Political Science* 17(3):355–387.

Battaglini, Marco, Ernest K Lai, Wooyoung Lim and Joseph Tao-yi Wang. 2019. "The Informational Theory of Legislative Committees: An Experimental Analysis." *American Political Science Review* 113(1):55–76.

Baumgartner, Frank R and Bryan D Jones. 2002. *Policy Dynamics*. University of Chicago Press.

Berry, Christopher R and Anthony Fowler. 2016. "Cardinals or Clerics? Congressional Committees and the Distribution of Pork." *American Journal of Political Science* 60(3):692–708.

Boyd, Christina L, Paul M Collins Jr and Lori A Ringhand. 2025. "Gender, Race, and Interruptions at Supreme Court Confirmation Hearings." *American Political Science Review* 119(1):492–499.

Bratton, Kathleen A and Kerry L Haynie. 1999. "Agenda Setting and Legislative Success in State Legislatures: The Effects of Gender and Race." *The Journal of Politics* 61(3):658–679.

Broockman, David E. 2013. "Black Politicians Are More Intrinsically Motivated To Advance Blacks' Interests: A Field Experiment Manipulating Political Incentives." *American Journal of Political Science* 57(3):521–536.

Brown, Nadia E. 2014. *Sisters in the Statehouse: Black Women and Legislative Decision Making*. Oxford University Press.

Burden, Barry C. 2007. *Personal Roots of Representation*. Princeton University Press.

Burgat, Casey, Charles Hunt, Timothy LaPira, Lee Drutman and Kevin Kosar. 2020. How Committee Staffers Clear The Runway For Legislative Action In Congress. In *Congress Overwhelmed: The Decline in Congressional Capacity and Prospects for Reform*. University of Chicago Press Chicago pp. 112–27.

Canon, David T. 1999. *Race, Redistricting, and Representation: The Unintended Consequences of Black Majority Districts*. University of Chicago Press.

Clark, Christopher J. 2019. *Gaining Voice: The Causes and Consequences of Black Representation in the American States*. Oxford University Press.

Curry, James M. 2015. *Legislating in the Dark: Information and Power in the House of Representatives*. University of Chicago Press.

Curry, James M. 2019. "Knowledge, Expertise, and Committee Power in the Contemporary Congress." *Legislative Studies Quarterly* 44(2):203–237.

Curry, James M and Leah Rosenstiel. 2025. "Unorthodox Lawmaking and the Value of Committee Assignments." *The Journal of Politics* .

Dietrich, Bryce J and Matthew Hayes. 2023. "Symbols of the Struggle: Descriptive Representation and Issue-Based Symbolism in US House Speeches.".

Dyck, Joshua J and Shanna Pearson-Merkowitz. 2014. "To Know You Is Not Necessarily To Love You: The Partisan Mediators of Intergroup Contact." *Political Behavior* 36:553–580.

Eldes, Ayse, Christian Fong and Kenneth Lowande. 2024. "Information and Confrontation in Legislative Oversight." *Legislative Studies Quarterly* 49(2):227–256.

Ellis, William Curtis and Walter Clark Wilson. 2013. "Minority Chairs and Congressional Attention to Minority Issues: The Effect of Descriptive Representation in Positions of Institutional Power." *Social Science Quarterly* 94(5):1207–1221.

Enos, Ryan D. 2014. "Causal Effect of Intergroup Contact on Exclusionary Attitudes." *Proceedings of the National Academy of Sciences* 111(10):3699–3704.

Esterling, Kevin M. 2011. ""Deliberative Disagreement" in US Health Policy Committee Hearings." *Legislative Studies Quarterly* 36(2):169–198.

Fenno, Richard F. 1973. *Congressmen in Committees*. Little, Brown and Company.

Fong, Christian, Kenneth Lowande and Adam Rauh. 2025. "Expertise Acquisition in Congress." *American Journal of Political Science* 69(1):5–18.

Gamble, Katrina L. 2007. "Black Political Representation: An Examination of Legislative Activity Within US House Committees." *Legislative Studies Quarterly* 32(3):421–447.

Gamble, Katrina L. 2011. "Black Voice: Deliberation in the United States Congress." *Polity* 43(3):291–312.

Gaynor, SoRelle Wyckoff. 2025. "Following the Leaders: Asymmetric Party Messaging in the US Congress." *Legislative Studies Quarterly* 50(1):85–106.

Griffin, John D. 2014. "When and Why Minority Legislators Matter." *Annual Review of Political Science* 17(1):327–336.

Grose, Christian R. 2011. *Congress in Black and White: Race and Representation in Washington and at Home*. Cambridge University Press.

Grose, Christian R, Maruice Mangum and Christopher Martin. 2007. "Race, Political Empowerment, and Constituency Service: Descriptive Representation and the Hiring of African-American Congressional Staff." *Polity* 39(4):449–478.

Haynie, Kerry Lee. 2001. *African American Legislators in the American states*. Columbia University Press.

Hero, Rodney E and Caroline J Tolbert. 1995. "Latinos and Substantive Representation in the US House of Representatives: Direct, Indirect, or Nonexistent?" *American Journal of Political Science* pp. 640–652.

Imai, Kosuke and In Song Kim. 2021. "On The Use of Two-Way Fixed Effects Regression Models for Causal Inference With Panel Data." *Political Analysis* 29(3):405–415.

Kathlene, Lyn. 1994. "Power and Influence in State Legislative Policymaking: The Interaction of Gender and Position in Committee Hearing Debates." *American Political Science Review* 88(3):560–576.

Kerr, Brinck and Will Miller. 1997. "Latino Representation, It's Direct and Indirect." *American Journal of Political Science* pp. 1066–1071.

Kiewiet, DR. 1991. *The Logic of Delegation*. Chicago: University of Chicago Press.

Knoll, Benjamin R. 2009. "¿Amigo De La Raza? Reexamining Determinants of Latino Support in the US Congress." *Social Science Quarterly* 90(1):179–195.

Krehbiel, Keith. 1992. *Information and Legislative Organization*. University of Michigan Press.

LaPira, Timothy M, Lee Drutman and Kevin R Kosar. 2020. *Congress Overwhelmed: The Decline in Congressional Capacity and Prospects for Reform*. University of Chicago Press.

Lazarus, Jeffrey. 2010. "Giving The People What They Want? The Distribution of Earmarks in the

US House of Representatives." *American Journal of Political Science* 54(2):338–353.

Lee, Frances E. 2016. *Insecure Majorities: Congress and the Perpetual Campaign*. University of Chicago Press.

Lewallen, Jonathan, Ju Yeon Park and Sean M Theriault. 2024. "The Politics of Problems Versus Solutions: Policymaking and Grandstanding in Congressional Hearings." *Policy Studies Journal* .

Lollis, Jacob M. 2025. "Race, Contact Effects, and Effective Lawmaking in Congressional Committee Hearings." *Political Research Quarterly* 78(1):102–119.

Lowande, Kenneth, Melinda Ritchie and Erinn Lauterbach. 2019. "Descriptive and Substantive Representation in Congress: Evidence from 80,000 Congressional Inquiries." *American Journal of Political Science* 63(3):644–659.

Mansbridge, Jane. 1999. "Should Blacks Represent Blacks and Women Represent Women? A Contingent "Yes"." *The Journal of politics* 61(3):628–657.

Mendelberg, Tali, Christopher F Karpowitz and J Baxter Oliphant. 2014. "Gender Inequality in Deliberation: Unpacking the Black Box of Interaction." *Perspectives on Politics* 12(1):18–44.

Mendelberg, Tali, Christopher F Karpowitz and Nicholas Goedert. 2014. "Does Descriptive Representation Facilitate Women's Distinctive Voice? How Gender Composition and Decision Rules Affect Deliberation." *American Journal of Political Science* 58(2):291–306.

Miller, Michael G and Joseph L Sutherland. 2023. "The Effect of Gender on Interruptions at Congressional Hearings." *American Political Science Review* 117(1):103–121.

Minta, Michael D. 2009. "Legislative Oversight and the Substantive Representation of Black and Latino Interests in Congress." *Legislative Studies Quarterly* 34(2):193–218.

Minta, Michael D. 2011. *Oversight: Representing The Interests of Blacks and Latinos in Congress*. Princeton University Press.

Minta, Michael D. 2021. *No Longer Outsiders: Black and Latino Interest Group Advocacy on Capitol Hill*. University of Chicago Press.

Minta, Michael D and Valeria Sinclair-Chapman. 2013. "Diversity in Political Institutions and Congressional Responsiveness to Minority Interests." *Political Research Quarterly* 66(1):127–140.

Nestor, Franchesca V. 2023. "Congressional Committee Demographics and Racially Salient Representation." *Politics, Groups, and Identities* 11(3):445–466.

Ommundsen, Emily Cottle. 2023. "The Institution's Knowledge: Congressional Staff Experience and Committee Productivity." *Legislative Studies Quarterly* 48(2):273–303.

Park, Ju Yeon. 2021. "When Do Politicians Grandstand? Measuring Message Politics in Committee Hearings." *The Journal of Politics* 83(1):214–228.

Park, Ju Yeon. 2023. "Electoral Rewards for Political Grandstanding." *Proceedings of the National Academy of Sciences* 120(17):e2214697120.

Pettigrew, Thomas F. 1998. "Intergroup Contact Theory." *Annual review of psychology* 49(1):65–85.

Pinney, Neil and George Serra. 2002. A Voice for Black Interests: Congressional Black Caucus Cohesion and Bill Cosponsorship. In *Congress & the Presidency: A Journal of Capital Studies*. Vol. 29 Taylor & Francis pp. 69–86.

Rouse, Stella M. 2023. Opportunities for Legislative Influence? Latinos and Committee Participation in the US Congress. In *Congress & the Presidency*. Vol. 50 Taylor & Francis pp. 164–189.

Sheingate, Adam D. 2006. "Structure and Opportunity: Committee Jurisdiction and Issue Attention in Congress." *American Journal of Political Science* 50(4):844–859.

Sinclair-Chapman, Valeria Nichelle. 2002. *Symbols and Substance: How Black Constituents are Collectively Represented in the United States Congress Through Roll-Call Voting and Bill Sponsorship*. The Ohio State University.

Swain, Carol. 1995. *Black Faces, Black Interests: The Representation of African Americans in Congress*. Harvard University Press.

Tate, Katherine. 2004. *Black Faces in the Mirror: African Americans and their Representatives in the US Congress*. Princeton University Press.

Tyson, Vanessa C. 2016. *Twists of Fate: Multiracial Coalitions and Minority Representation in the US House of Representatives*. Oxford University Press.

Volden, Craig and Alan E Wiseman. 2014. *Legislative Effectiveness in the United States Congress: The Lawmakers*. Cambridge university press.

Volden, Craig and Alan E Wiseman. 2020. "Foxes vs. Hedgehogs: Issue Specialization and Effective Lawmaking in the US Congress.".

Volden, Craig, Alan E Wiseman and Dana E Wittmer. 2018. "Women's Issues And Their Fates In The US Congress." *Political Science Research and Methods* 6(4):679–696.

Whitby, Kenny J. 2000. *The Color of Representation: Congressional Behavior and Black Interests*. University of Michigan Press.

Wilson, Walter Clark. 2010. "Descriptive Representation and Latino Interest Bill Sponsorship in Congress." *Social Science Quarterly* 91(4):1043–1062.

Wilson, Walter Clark. 2017. *From Inclusion to Influence: Latino Representation in Congress and Latino Political Incorporation in America*. University of Michigan Press.

Online Supplemental Appendix

Contents

1 Descriptive Statistics

Variable	Unit of Analysis	Mean	Std. Deviation	Range
Dependent Variables				
Evidence (ln + 1)	Member-Committee-Term	0.50	0.60	0 – 2.996
Matching Sources (ln + 1)	Member-Committee-Term	0.75	0.37	0 – 2.2
(Race Issue Bills) Action Beyond Committee (ABC)	Member-Term	0.25	0.77	0 – 12
(Race Issue Bills) Passed House (PASS)	Member-Term	0.19	0.65	0 – 11
(Race Issue Bills) Signed Into Law (LAW)	Member-Term	0.04	0.27	0 – 6
(Race Issue Bills) Legislative Effectiveness Score (LES)	Member-Term	1.21	3.69	0 – 52
Primary Independent Variables				
% Nonwhite on Committee	Member-Committee-Term	0.2186819	0.07951854	0 – 0.62
White Lawmaker	Member-Committee-Term	0.63	0.48	0 – 1
Control Variables				
Democrat	Member-Committee-Term	0.64	0.48	0 – 1
Total Race Statements	Member-Committee-Term	3.86	5.49	1 – 68
Total Unique Sources	Member-Committee-Term	1.44	1.01	1 – 13
Nonwhite	Member-Committee-Term	0.37	0.48	0 – 1
% Nonwhite in House	Member-Term	20.4	5.44	13.6 – 28.3
% Nonwhite in District	Member-Term	0.36	0.21	0.034 – 0.932
Committee Chair	Member-Term	0.06	0.23	0 – 1
Nonwhite Chair	Member-Term	0.008	0.09	0 – 1
On Committee With Nonwhite Chair	Member-Term	0.132	0.336	0 – 1
Female Lawmaker	Member-Term	0.25	0.43	0 – 1
LGBTQ Lawmaker	Member-Term	0.015	0.121	0 – 1
In Majority Party Leadership	Member-Term	0.021	0.14	0 – 1
In Minority Party Leadership	Member-Term	0.018	0.131	0 – 1
Subcommittee Chair	Member-Term	0.25	0.44	0 – 1
Ideological Distance from Chamber Median	Member-Term	0.43	0.00	0 – 1.09
DW-Nominate (1st Dimension)	Member-Term	-0.035	0.456	-0.819 – 0.936
DW-Nominate (2nd Dimension)	Member-Term	-0.037	0.295	-0.992 – 0.995
Seniority	Member-Term	5.62	4.44	1 – 28
In Majority Party	Member-Term	0.541	0.498	0 – 1
Vote Share	Member-Term	68.3	13.1	43 – 100
Total Bills Sponsored	Member-Term	17.9	12.1	0 – 105

2 Validating Evidence Measure

To assess the face validity of my evidence measure, I report 20 randomly selected evidence statements and 20 randomly selected non-evidence statements. If the measure accurately captures evidence usage, references to evidence should be present in all selected evidence statements and absent from all non-evidence statements—exactly as Tables 2.1 and 2.2 confirm. In Table 2.1, I bolded the evidence references in all 20 evidence statements. While validity is less of a concern since I manually labeled the data rather than relying on automated coding, this face validity check reinforces that the measure accurately captures evidence usage.

Table 2.1: 20 Randomly Selected Evidence Statements

Number	Speech
1	"Thank you, Madam Chair. It was briefly mentioned before, **a report came out from the ACLU** about new facial recognition technology where t**hey downloaded 25,000 arrest records, used them against pictures of every current Member of Congress in the last term. There are 28 false matches**. People of color made up 20 percent of Congress at that time, more now, by the way. And 40 percent of the false matches were people of color, including legendary civil rights hero John Lewis. Obviously, the software as it stood there would disproportionately target minorities. This is a technology that is being used in my hometown of Orlando, only voluntarily, to track officers to test the technology, but certainly it is something that is concerning for us."
2	"My bill, H.R. 4604, the **CFPB Data Collection Security Act**, once again tries to stop some of **CFPB's massive data collection by allowing consumers to opt out of all CFPB data collection**. The provision has been modeled after the successful National Do Not Call Registry."
3	"This is kind of a long set of data, that I am going to mention, but **according to the central personnel data file**, as of September 2006, **the percentage of women in the career SES Government-wide was 28.4 percent and the percentage of minorities was 15.9 percent. Of these, African Americans constituted 8.6 percent, Hispanics 3.6 percent, Asian American/Pacific Islanders 2.3 percent, and American Indian/Alaska Natives 1.3 percent.**"
4	"Thank you very much. Now let's go to another college, and that is the Coast Guard Academy. The C**omprehensive Climate and Cultural Optimization Review** effort conducted at the Academy, dated February 2007, found that "**The number of African American high school students who are academically ready for an Academy experience, eligible and interested in military services estimated at only 640 young people per year in the Nation.**" Where does this number come from and what is limiting this number? Is it academic qualification or interest in military service, or both?"
5	"I want to talk collections. **ProPublica**, in 2015, conducted an investigation into collection lawsuits, and it was very troublesome because one of the things they discovered was **that debts in most African-American communities were, on average, 20 to 25 percent smaller than the debts in predominantly non-minority communities.** And you had nothing to do with creating that, but I want to know if there is anything afoot in the CFPB to address that issue and reduce the pain it is causing."
6	"Thank you. Dr. Goodwin, in **October 2021 GAO reported data on missing and murdered Indigenous women is unknown because Federal data bases do not contain comprehensive national data**. I'm deeply concerned about this as Indigenous populations in Oklahoma are affected by these crimes, including human trafficking. What steps can be taken to improve data collection and analysis to better understand and identify these trends of crimes?"
7	"The original bill, the **Dodd-Frank Act**, **created new data reporting requirements that are aimed at helping regulators understand credit conditions for small, women-owned, and minority-owned businesses.**"
8	"Thank you, Mr. Chairman. Mr. Secretary, when you were in Laredo, as you know, Laredo, percentage-wise, according to the **U.S. Census**, is the **most Hispanic city in the country, 96 percent Hispanic.**"
9	"A **2017 report by the Government Accountability Office** found hat violence from the far right has actually accounted for **73 percent of deadly attacks since 9/11**. Last week, the **FBI** urged that White supremacy is a, quote, **"persistent and pervasive threat,"** unquote. Yet, the Administration's response has been to rescind grants and ask Congress to eliminate DOJ's community relations service dedicated toward hate crimes and which is dedicated toward preventing hate crimes and combating racial tensions, and DOJ has prosecuted hate crimes at a 20 percent decrease, despite acknowledging the rise in such crimes. What is your organization doing to ensure that there is an appropriate enforcement against these types of hate crimes?" "
10	"There is a provision in the **Workforce Investment Act** that **prohibits discrimination based on race, color, creed, national origin or sex**. Is there any reason why we ought to change that? Anyone suggesting that we change that so that people would be able to discriminate? "
11	"The issues raised here today impact far too many people in this country. According to a study by the **Center for American Progress**, **women are the primary sole, or co-bread winners in 64 percent of families.**"
12	"Although Tribal Labor Relations Ordinances have been adopted by some tribes, these ordinances vary greatly in the levels of workforce protection. I have **Section 3107 of the 2010 Blackfeet Tribal Employment Rights Ordinance and Safety Enforcement Act of 2010**, which I ask to insert in the record. It reads '**'Unions are prohibited in the Blackfeet Indian reservation."** So, there are tribes that discourage unions in their organizations."
13	"Thank you, Mr. Chairman. Mr. Chairman, I have intelligence indicating that a **2020 Rand survey commissioned by FEMA** found serious cultural issues at the agency for people of color and minorities. The survey assessed gender bias, sexual harassment, and gender discrimination. **This survey found that 29 percent of the employees expressed the views that their civil rights were being violated. Twenty percent reported having experienced civil rights violations based on sex.** Eighteen percent reported having experienced civil rights violations based on race or ethnicity. So, this begs the question, what is FEMA doing to address these allegations? So, Madam Administrator, thank you for being with us today. Sorry, to rush right into this. I have been busy with some other committee assignments as well and if this has already broached–this issue has been brought to your attention, I beg that you would forgive me for asking it twice. But these are things of concern to me."
14	"Ms. Patterson, you wrote **in your article "Climate Change and Civil Rights Issues"** that the **Black community tends to have a greater dependence on public transportation, that Black individuals are more likely to live in inner cities, and are disproportionately affected in rises in home energy costs.** I would imagine all of these factors play a role in how COVID-19 is impacting the Black community. Is that true? And if yes, how so?"
15	"Mr. Attorney General, in the 2013 decision, **Shelby County v. Holder**, the Supreme Court gutted section 5 of the Voting Rights Act, rendering its preclearance provision inoperative. As a direct result of this decision, the right to vote has come under a renewed and steady assault and States have spent the past eight years enacting a slew of barriers to voting to target or impact communities of color and other historically disenfranchised groups. "
16	"As I have explored in previous hearings, there are many racial disparities in the unbanked population, and we need to do everything we can to address the underlying factors that inhibit access to basic financial services so that people of color can save and invest for their future. **According to a 2019 FDIC survey**, **nearly half of the unbanked households didn't even have enough money to start a bank account. About one-third of unbanked households cited both high bank fees and unpredictable bank fees as barriers to getting banked.** "
17	"Earlier we hard that the Navajo Nation, **EPA has a list of 80 to 90 homes they suspect may have elevated levels of radon. In other words, they believe these homes may be radioactive.** They aren't sure how many of these homes are currently occupied. Let me ask you, for the record, the Navajo Nation EPA says that it provided a list of these homes to U.S. EPA in 2001. Is that true, and has U.S. EPA had a list of these homes for the past 6 years?"
18	"**The New York Times**, in June 2021, **reported that White disaster victims received more from FEMA than people of color, even when the amount of damage to their homes and properties is the same.** Could you explain why this occurred?"
19	"Yes. But they looked at **31 million HMDA records in a year-long analysis** and found that **61 municipal areas across the United States had denied people of color, black and brown people, the right to take on a mortgage compared to equally qualified whites.** What is the economic impact of that discrimination, in your view? When people can afford a mortgage and are told you can't have one, what sort of impacts could we expect to see when that happens on a systematic basis?"
20	"The **National Association of Hispanic Real Estate Professionals** predicted that **foreclosures in the Hispanic community alone are expected to reach nearly $25 billion in 2007, and almost twice that–$52 billion–in 2008**. "

Table 2.2: 20 Randomly Selected Non-Evidence Statements

Number	Speech
1	“Would you, please? Because that would kind of answer some of the questions I have. And then, how many other agencies are involved, or should be involved, besides Fish and Wildlife and the National Institute of Health for being able to determine the status of the health concerns? CDC? What about BIA, Bureau of Indian Affairs? What role do they play in being able to notify Native American tribes? Are they immediate, do you work with them, or do you get them involved immediately and task them with doing the outreach? ”
2	“How do you structure a counseling program to not just reach people who are low income and who recognize that they have problems buying a home? That is an obvious target group for you to reach. I am sure there are fairly easy ways to reach them. How do you take it a step further, though, to proactively reach what may be affluent, but discriminated-against homeowners who may be African American or Latino, Puerto Rican? ”
3	“Housing is a fundamental human right, yet across the country and in my district, the Massachusetts 7th, millions of people do not have access to a safe, decent, and affordable place to call home. For decades, Black families have been locked out of homeownership opportunities due to discriminatory lending. And now, private-equity-backed institutional landlords have pushed this dream even further out of reach by gobbling up single-family homes and worsening the housing crisis across this country. ”
4	“Dr. Fradkin, my first questions nicely piggyback on Mr. Shimkus’s question because one of the big concerns of the Diabetes Caucus for a long time has been the disparities between minority populations like African Americans, Latinos and American Indians and Alaska Natives and Anglos, and we are not really sure why those disparities exist other than a combination of factors of health access, community, environment, genetics, so I am wondering if you can talk a little bit more about any ongoing research by NIH to address the cause of the disparities because until we find out the cause, we can’t really address how to deal with it.”
5	“Thank you, Mr. Chairman. I thank you for this very important hearing on how COVID-19 has increased racial inequities in the country. The shift to distance learning has exposed the educational inequities many students of color have been facing for decades as States start to open back up and grapple with the depleted budgets. It is the role of the Federal Government historically to ensure equity in every sector. And, recently, many competitive colleges, like the University of California’s system, private schools such as Harvard University, have suspended the use of ACT and SAT scores in their admissions process to help level the playing field. Mr. King, from your experience, how much of the college admissions process is reliant on these test scores?”
6	“Wages were up, taxes have been cut, regulations reduced, unemployment at its lowest in 50 years, unemployment for African Americans, Hispanic Americans, stock market up, the best economy we’ve seen. I have had businessowners in our district say best economy they’ve seen in their entire 30, 35 years in business, best economy ever. ”
7	“Are there any African American executive producers types in the audience? Are there any Latino executive producers in the audience? Do you know of any African American and Latino or Asian executive producers?”
8	“It is part racial discrimination– I am just going to submit this for the record. I am new here and this timing thing, there is nothing that Chairwoman Waters can do, but it really–it is just awful, and I come from the Michigan legislature and we never had this like timing thing. But I want to submit this for the record. But I think it is really important to show that right now black applicants were almost twice as likely to be denied conventional home purchase loans as white applicants in 2016, and Detroit alone ranked 44 out of 48 communities nationally that found blacks were denied loans at a higher rate. ”
9	“Mr. Lappin, 50 percent, as Mr. Davis indicated, of felons are African American men. I mean, I understand that there have been court suits and we want to make sure we are not segregating people, but of the values, penology values, the notion that–I suppose I would have to ask you.”
10	“Great. So, you know, Chicago residents are–that are most impacted by lead service lines are often in communities of color and more low-income communities. So, Mr. Regan, how does investing in drinking water infrastructure contribute to your environmental justice agenda?”
11	“The Coast Guard invited 50 African Americans to the Academy earlier this year and helped them to complete applications. How many of these individuals were subsequently offered appointments to the Academy?”
12	“Thank you. Ms. Sharp, should this committee make the climate justice investments in every Native American nation in this country, as we do in our bill and as we did for COVID-19 funding?”
13	“What specific recommendations do you propose to members of this committee to enact to ensure economic empowerment to the Hispanic community, and what should be the consequences of hearing focused on and what legislative steps can we take?”
14	“Can you tell us how this collaboration between law enforcement and fossil fuel companies puts indigenous women, in particular, at heightened risk of abduction and murder?”
15	“And building off of that a moment, ma’am, targeting amongst the groups that you indicated, minorities, women, lower income communities, and other populations currently underrepresented in the energy sector, how do we assure that they have access to the training and employment in that offshore–as we try to bring offshore wind to market?”
16	“Mr. Chairman, I just simply want to ask permission that my opening statement be included in the record and point out that I am a lead co-sponsor of the bill to End Racial Profiling Act and am very interested in this hearing. Thank you.”
17	“Mr. Watts, that is not a protected right. There are certain protected rights. Racial discrimination is a protected right. Discrimination based upon sex is a protected right. But you can discriminate against people because of their views. That is not a protected right under our system. You can do that.”
18	“Hey, Chair Castor, this is Garret. Thank you very much for the opportunity for the certainly appropriate honoring of John Lewis. It has been an incredible experience to be able to serve with someone who has played such an amazing role in the Civil Rights Act. You read about these iconic figures, but to be able to serve alongside of him has just been an awing experience. ”
19	“Thank you very much. Even though I had not planned on asking this question, I am very interested in knowing what is happening with the evaluation of homes in the Black community, and what is happening with the way that the discrimination appears to have been taking place for so many years.”
20	“The gentleman from North Carolina and Ranking Member of the Subcommittee is also the Chairman of the Congressional Black Caucus and has been extraordinarily busy with the passing of Rosa Parks, and so he has been concerned about his time. I leaned over and asked him if he thought I should tap, and his response was more or less no, this is great because we don’t have to read it. And so I suggest that is exactly my view, by the way. And so we are going to be a little bit liberal, in fact, forget the clock. Just be interesting and, if you see one of us nodding off, then you know you have probably gone on too long.”

3 In-Text Models

3.1 Table 3.1: White Legislators Make More Evidence-Based Race Statements on Racially Diverse Committees

	Evidence (White Lawmaker)		Evidence (White Democrat)		Evidence (White Republican)	
	1	2	3	4	5	6
Proportion of Nonwhite Legislators on Committee	**0.686****	**0.801***	**1.006***	**0.964***	0.428	0.375
	(0.266)	(0.327)	(0.404)	(0.479)	(0.381)	(0.514)
Power Committee	0.134*	0.178**	0.159†	0.278**	0.124*	0.039
	(0.057)	(0.066)	(0.097)	(0.100)	(0.063)	(0.082)
Race Committee	0.011	−0.071	−0.112	−0.203*	0.138*	0.130
	(0.051)	(0.065)	(0.077)	(0.093)	(0.062)	(0.105)
# of Hearings	0.001**	0.001	0.002*	0.002*	0.001†	−0.0002
	(0.0004)	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)
# of Bills Referred	0.0001*	0.0001†	0.0002*	0.0002†	0.00001	0.00000
	(0.0001)	(0.0001)	(0.0001)	(0.0001)	(0.0001)	(0.0001)
Democrat		−2.455*				
		(1.106)				
DW-NOMINATE (1st Dimension)		−1.379		−1.997		−0.446
		(1.328)		(1.418)		(2.712)
DW-NOMINATE (2nd Dimension)		−1.379*		−1.858**		−0.576
		(0.552)		(0.691)		(0.943)
Committee Chair		−0.012		0.078		−0.126
		(0.150)		(0.228)		(0.189)
Majority Party Member		0.080†		0.177†		−0.100
		(0.045)		(0.107)		(0.073)
Unified Government		−0.018		0.038		−0.107
		(0.050)		(0.065)		(0.070)
% Nonwhite in District		0.520		0.001		0.908
		(0.427)		(0.601)		(0.711)
% Nonwhite in House		−3.735		−4.943		−8.443***
		(2.312)		(3.441)		(2.256)
Seniority (Terms)		0.038		0.081		0.125**
		(0.049)		(0.076)		(0.041)
Vote Share (Lagged)		0.002		−0.001		0.006
		(0.002)		(0.002)		(0.004)
Intercept	0.353**	2.018***	0.013	−0.605	0.378*	0.457
	(0.131)	(0.586)	(0.162)	(0.776)	(0.161)	(1.426)
Legislator Fixed Effects	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Term Fixed Effects	✓		✓		✓	
R^2	0.443	0.491	0.445	0.505	0.457	0.501
Adjusted R^2	0.149	0.123	0.206	0.204	0.094	0.039
Observations	1,935	1,181	875	575	1,060	606

† p<0.1; * p<0.05; ** p<0.01; *** p<0.001

Note: White Democrats cite more race-based evidence as the percentage of nonwhite lawmakers on their committees increases. The dependent variable is the natural log of the total number of evidence-based statements made by a white lawmaker in a given committee-term (DV = ln(Evidence + 1)). Standard errors are robust and clustered by legislator.

3.2 Table 3.2: Nonwhite and White Legislators Cite Similar Sources on Racially Diverse Committees

	Matching Sources (White Lawmakers)		Matching Sources (White Democrats)		Matching Sources (White Republicans)	
	1	2	3	4	5	6
Proportion of Nonwhite Lawmakers on Committee	**0.243**†	0.236	**0.392***	**0.505**†	0.102	−0.072
	(0.140)	(0.181)	(0.200)	(0.276)	(0.189)	(0.272)
Total Race Statements	−0.006*	−0.008*	−0.005	−0.009*	−0.006	0.001
	(0.003)	(0.004)	(0.004)	(0.004)	(0.005)	(0.006)
Total Nonwhite Unique Sources (1st Half of Term)	0.004*	0.004*	0.001	0.001	0.006**	0.004
	(0.002)	(0.002)	(0.002)	(0.003)	(0.002)	(0.003)
Total White Unique Sources (2nd Half of Term)	0.327***	0.356***	0.294***	0.293***	0.362***	0.447***
	(0.016)	(0.026)	(0.025)	(0.032)	(0.018)	(0.024)
Power Committee	−0.040†	−0.054†	−0.044	−0.083*	−0.049	−0.018
	(0.021)	(0.031)	(0.029)	(0.039)	(0.034)	(0.040)
Race Committee	0.022	0.048	0.028	0.046	0.006	0.032
	(0.023)	(0.035)	(0.032)	(0.050)	(0.035)	(0.045)
# of Hearings	0.00004	0.0002	0.0001	0.0003	−0.00002	0.0005†
	(0.0002)	(0.0002)	(0.0002)	(0.0004)	(0.0002)	(0.0003)
# of Bills Referred	0.00001	0.00004	0.00003	0.0001	0.00002	0.00003
	(0.00003)	(0.00003)	(0.00004)	(0.0001)	(0.00004)	(0.00004)
Democrat		0.552				
		(0.538)				
DW-NOMINATE (1st Dimension)		−0.245		−0.675†		0.241
		(0.571)		(0.398)		(1.033)
DW-NOMINATE (2nd Dimension)		0.388		0.690*		0.114
		(0.276)		(0.272)		(0.472)
Committee Chair		−0.005		0.056		−0.076†
		(0.047)		(0.063)		(0.045)
Majority Party Member		0.014		0.025		−0.010
		(0.024)		(0.056)		(0.039)
Unified Government		−0.031		−0.038		0.012
		(0.024)		(0.033)		(0.027)
% Nonwhite in District		−0.132		−0.265		−0.453†
		(0.220)		(0.353)		(0.256)
% Nonwhite in House		0.719		0.613		0.686
		(0.857)		(1.715)		(0.854)
Seniority (Terms)		−0.013		−0.004		−0.011
		(0.019)		(0.039)		(0.015)
Vote Share (Lagged)		−0.001		0.0003		−0.004
		(0.001)		(0.002)		(0.002)
Intercept	−0.346***	−0.267	0.171**	0.029	−0.407***	0.368
	(0.074)	(0.351)	(0.062)	(0.321)	(0.100)	(0.577)
Legislator Fixed Effects	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Term Fixed Effects	✓		✓		✓	
R^2	0.710	0.769	0.686	0.742	0.744	0.846
Adjusted R^2	0.556	0.601	0.549	0.582	0.570	0.701
Observations	1,935	1,181	875	575	1,060	606

† p<0.1; * p<0.05; ** p<0.01; *** p<0.001

Note: White (Democrats) cite the same sources of evidence as nonwhite lawmakers on racially diverse committees. The dependent variable is the natural log of the total number of sources cited by white lawmakers that were also cited by nonwhite lawmakers in a committee-term (DV = ln(Matching Source + 1)). Standard errors are robust and clustered by legislator.

3.3 Table 3.3: Past Committee Diversity Predicts Present Evidence Use

	Evidence (White Lawmakers)		Evidence (White Democrats)		Evidence (White Republicans)	
	1	2	3	4	5	6
% Nonwhite on Committee in Prior Term (t−1)	**1.992****	1.326	**2.535***	**1.935**†	1.784†	1.482
	(0.694)	(0.809)	(0.994)	(0.997)	(1.008)	(0.984)
% Nonwhite on Committee in Current Term (t)	1.268	1.474	1.719	1.066	2.378	2.595
	(1.086)	(1.159)	(1.531)	(1.776)	(1.915)	(1.998)
% Nonwhite in District	−0.203	−0.211	0.068	−3.496*	−0.779	0.690
	(0.904)	(0.883)	(1.911)	(1.709)	(1.166)	(1.188)
Power Committee	0.126	0.173	0.077	−0.078	0.778	0.991
	(0.244)	(0.259)	(0.250)	(0.249)	(0.812)	(0.851)
Race Committee	−0.085	−0.095	−0.118	0.131	−0.256	−0.266
	(0.270)	(0.283)	(0.243)	(0.236)	(0.748)	(0.746)
# of Hearings	0.003*	0.003*	0.004*	0.003*	0.0001	−0.001
	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.002)	(0.002)	(0.002)	(0.003)
# of Bills Referred	0.0002	0.0002	0.0003	0.0003	−0.001†	−0.001†
	(0.0002)	(0.0002)	(0.0002)	(0.0002)	(0.0004)	(0.0005)
Democrat		1.422				
		(19.344)				
DW-NOMINATE (1st Dimension)		2.432		−35.652		−3.084
		(23.340)		(50.886)		(31.360)
DW-NOMINATE (2nd Dimension)		0.595		−3.439		−0.301
		(8.816)		(13.934)		(11.018)
Committee Chair		0.301		0.483		0.182
		(0.232)		(0.371)		(0.260)
Majority Party Member		0.175†		0.403		−0.133
		(0.093)		(0.263)		(0.132)
Unified Government		0.013		0.133		−0.016
		(0.101)		(0.155)		(0.166)
% Nonwhite in House		−3.638		−1.355		−11.685*
		(6.100)		(11.974)		(4.750)
Seniority (Terms)		0.008		0.018		0.111†
		(0.124)		(0.259)		(0.057)
Vote Share (Lagged)		−0.00003		−0.011†		0.020†
		(0.005)		(0.006)		(0.010)
Intercept	−0.360	−1.144	−2.011**	−10.647	0.862	1.805
	(1.034)	(11.844)	(0.755)	(15.128)	(1.112)	(17.833)
Legislator Fixed Effects	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Term Fixed Effects	✓		✓		✓	
R^2	0.636	0.637	0.700	0.707	0.600	0.604
Adjusted R^2	0.175	0.169	0.288	0.298	−0.061	−0.062
Observations	368	367	200	200	168	167

† p<0.1; * p<0.05; ** p<0.01; *** p<0.001

Note: White (Democrats) who were exposed to racially diverse committees in the prior term (t-1) continue to cite evidence in the present term (t), regardless of how racially diverse their committee is in the current term. The dependent variable is the natural log of the total number of evidence-based race statements (DV = ln(Evidence + 1)). Standard errors are robust and clustered by legislator.

3.4 Table 3.4: Legislators Who Make Evidence-Based Race Statements In Hearings Are More Effective At Legislating Race Bills

	Action in Committee (Race Bills)	Action Beyond Commitee (Race Bills)	Passed House (Race Bills)	Passed Both Chambers (Race Bills)	Become Law (Race Bills)
	1	2	3	4	5
Total Race-Based Evidence Statements	**0.039***	**0.035***	**0.023***	0.004	0.004
	(0.015)	(0.014)	(0.010)	(0.004)	(0.004)
Nonwhite	0.061	0.023	−0.030	−0.019	−0.019
	(0.066)	(0.057)	(0.040)	(0.019)	(0.019)
Democrat	−0.241	−0.222	−0.247*	−0.073	−0.073
	(0.163)	(0.133)	(0.097)	(0.052)	(0.052)
On Race Committee	0.068	0.008	0.003	−0.005	−0.005
	(0.054)	(0.046)	(0.032)	(0.015)	(0.015)
% Nonwhite in District	−0.176	−0.023	0.012	−0.033	−0.033
	(0.170)	(0.136)	(0.097)	(0.045)	(0.045)
Nonwhite Chair	0.377	−0.090	−0.043	0.138	0.138
	(0.852)	(0.683)	(0.457)	(0.226)	(0.226)
Committee Chair	0.893***	0.859***	0.533***	0.118*	0.118*
	(0.172)	(0.173)	(0.126)	(0.058)	(0.058)
In Majority Leadership	0.105	0.042	0.048	0.098	0.098
	(0.137)	(0.117)	(0.092)	(0.076)	(0.076)
In Minority Leadership	−0.109	−0.125	−0.089*	−0.028	−0.028
	(0.105)	(0.073)	(0.044)	(0.018)	(0.018)
Subcommittee Chair	0.197**	0.184**	0.048	0.021	0.021
	(0.066)	(0.061)	(0.040)	(0.021)	(0.021)
Ideological Distance from Floor Median	0.008	−0.051	−0.001	−0.082	−0.082
	(0.217)	(0.180)	(0.132)	(0.054)	(0.054)
Served in State Legislature	0.088*	0.069	0.035	0.010	0.010
	(0.045)	(0.040)	(0.028)	(0.013)	(0.013)
Female	0.016	0.036	−0.014	−0.016	−0.016
	(0.059)	(0.049)	(0.033)	(0.016)	(0.016)
LGBTQ	−0.0003	0.005	−0.050	−0.025	−0.025
	(0.141)	(0.112)	(0.077)	(0.039)	(0.039)
DW-NOMINATE (1st Dimension)	−0.361	−0.283	−0.334**	−0.104	−0.104
	(0.198)	(0.154)	(0.111)	(0.055)	(0.055)
DW-NOMINATE (2nd Dimension)	0.123	0.084	−0.012	−0.011	−0.011
	(0.075)	(0.067)	(0.044)	(0.021)	(0.021)
Seniority	0.032***	0.033***	0.013***	0.005*	0.005*
	(0.006)	(0.005)	(0.004)	(0.002)	(0.002)
In Majority Party	0.225*	0.194*	0.122	−0.004	−0.004
	(0.103)	(0.090)	(0.063)	(0.026)	(0.026)
Vote Share (Lagged)	−0.004*	−0.003	−0.001	−0.0005	−0.0005
	(0.002)	(0.002)	(0.002)	(0.001)	(0.001)
Total Bills Introduced	0.009***	0.006**	0.004**	0.001	0.001
	(0.002)	(0.002)	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)
Intercept	0.257	0.250	0.353	0.222	0.222
	(0.257)	(0.255)	(0.246)	(0.122)	(0.122)
Term Fixed Effects	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
R^2	0.311	0.300	0.211	0.072	0.072
Adjusted R^2	0.297	0.286	0.195	0.053	0.053
Observations	1,344	1,344	1,344	1,344	1,344

*p<0.05; **p<0.01; ***p<0.001

Note: Lawmakers who make more evidence-based race statements are more effective at advancing and pass race bills. Standard errors are robust and clustered by legislator.

4 Additional Models

4.1 Table 4.1: White Legislators Make More Evidence-Based Race Statements on Racially Diverse Committees (Interaction Model)

	Evidence	Evidence (Democrat)	Evidence (Republican)
	1	2	3
Proportion of Nonwhite Legislators on Committee	−0.323	−0.281	0.845
	(0.253)	(0.259)	(1.342)
White	−0.167*	−0.178	0.205
	(0.082)	(0.095)	(0.387)
Proportion of Nonwhite Legislators on Committee * White	0.718	**0.787***	−0.724
	(0.297)	(0.347)	(1.333)
Power Committee	0.036	0.045	0.003
	(0.026)	(0.033)	(0.041)
# of Hearings	−0.0005	−0.001	−0.0003
	(0.0003)	(0.0003)	(0.0004)
# of Bills Referred	0.00003	0.00001	0.0001
	(0.00003)	(0.00003)	(0.00005)
Democrat	0.062		
	(0.079)		
DW-NOMINATE (1st Dimension)	−0.004	−0.139	0.080
	(0.091)	(0.148)	(0.148)
DW-NOMINATE (2nd Dimension)	0.004	−0.010	0.029
	(0.040)	(0.051)	(0.077)
Committee Chair	0.028	0.059	−0.037
	(0.048)	(0.062)	(0.082)
Nonwhite Chair	0.286	0.261	
	(0.198)	(0.188)	
Majority Party Member	−0.044*	−0.112	−0.117
	(0.020)	(0.168)	(0.190)
Unified Government	−0.043	−0.068	−0.040
	(0.030)	(0.051)	(0.061)
% Nonwhite in District	−0.072	0.018	−0.285*
	(0.079)	(0.100)	(0.141)
% Nonwhite in House	−1.919	−1.302	−2.488
	(1.063)	(2.642)	(3.046)
Seniority (Terms)	0.004	0.004	0.003
	(0.003)	(0.004)	(0.006)
Vote Share (Lagged)	0.0003	−0.002	0.003
	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.002)
LGBTQ Lawmaker	0.111	0.107	
	(0.064)	(0.065)	
Female Lawmaker	0.021	0.020	0.025
	(0.027)	(0.031)	(0.046)
Total Race Statements	0.068***	0.065***	0.092***
	(0.004)	(0.004)	(0.007)
Intercept	0.682*	0.697	0.322
	(0.302)	(0.556)	(0.912)
Term Fixed Effects	✓	✓	✓
R^2	0.478	0.510	0.369
Adjusted R^2	0.471	0.501	0.348
Observations	1,917	1,274	643

*p<0.05; **p<0.01; ***p<0.001

Note: Consistent with the primary finding reported in Table 3, White (Democratic) lawmakers cite more evidence when serving on racially diverse committees. In this model, I estimate the relationship between the racial diversity of a committee and white lawmakers' race-based evidence usage as an interaction term, rather than including legislator fixed effects. Member-level controls are included given that legislator fixed effects are omitted alongside term fixed effects. Standard errors are robust and clustered by legislator. In both model specifications, the results are consistent.

4.2 Table 4.2: White Legislators Make More Evidence-Based Race Statements on Racially Diverse Committees (Proportion Models)

	Evidence (White Lawmaker)		Evidence (White Democrat)		Evidence (White Republican)	
	1	2	3	4	5	6
Proportion of Nonwhite Legislators on Committee	**5.230***	4.240	**7.738***	6.344	3.408	0.249
	(2.553)	(3.158)	(3.582)	(5.032)	(3.715)	(4.462)
Power Committee	0.708	1.203*	0.696	1.681*	0.541	0.266
	(0.453)	(0.517)	(0.634)	(0.745)	(0.647)	(0.815)
# of Hearings	−0.001	−0.007	−0.002	−0.004	0.00001	−0.009
	(0.003)	(0.005)	(0.006)	(0.010)	(0.004)	(0.006)
# of Bills Referred	0.001	0.00000	0.001	−0.001	0.001	0.001
	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)
Democrat		−22.990*				
		(9.942)				
DW-NOMINATE (1st Dimension)		−20.748		−27.501*		8.984
		(11.478)		(13.951)		(28.013)
DW-NOMINATE (2nd Dimension)		−14.679*		−18.849**		−5.002
		(5.813)		(7.160)		(10.595)
Committee Chair		−0.464		0.517		−1.691
		(1.015)		(1.351)		(1.598)
Majority Party Member		−0.601		0.944		−0.979
		(0.390)		(1.669)		(0.725)
Unified Government		−0.326		−0.092		−0.872
		(0.471)		(0.704)		(0.688)
% Nonwhite in District		5.648		2.297		8.778
		(4.513)		(7.146)		(6.322)
% Nonwhite in House		−61.497***		−115.074		−74.139***
		(16.256)		(76.029)		(16.288)
Seniority (Terms)		0.815*		1.841		1.208***
		(0.338)		(1.627)		(0.267)
Vote Share (Lagged)		0.034		0.031		0.042
		(0.030)		(0.036)		(0.055)
Intercept	−3.136**	17.569**	−1.712	−8.754	−2.969	−6.873
	(1.206)	(5.445)	(1.281)	(9.431)	(1.530)	(14.235)
Legislator Fixed Effects	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Term Fixed Effects	✓		✓		✓	
R^2	0.429	0.481	0.396	0.459	0.471	0.518
Adjusted R^2	0.127	0.108	0.138	0.132	0.118	0.074
Observations	1,935	1,181	875	575	1,060	606

*p<0.05; **p<0.01; ***p<0.001

Note: Consistent with the primary finding reported in Table 3, White (Democratic) lawmakers cite more evidence when serving on racially diverse committees. In this model, I examine the relationship between committee racial diversity and the proportion of race-based statements that include evidence. The dependent variable captures the proportion of race-based evidence statements to total race-based statements. The results show that white (Democrats) on more racially diverse committees make a higher proportion of evidence-based race statements than those on less diverse committees. Standard errors are robust and clustered by legislator. Findings are consistent across both model specifications.

4.3 Table 4.3: Nonwhite Legislators Make More Evidence-Based Race Statements Than White Lawmakers

	Evidence (White Lawmaker)	Evidence (White Lawmaker)
	1	2
Nonwhite	**0.249****	−0.040
	(0.076)	(0.121)
Democrat	−0.178	−0.222
	(0.147)	(0.146)
Nonwhite * Democrat		**0.342***
		(0.145)
DW-NOMINATE (1st Dimension)	−0.238	−0.250
	(0.176)	(0.175)
DW-NOMINATE (2nd Dimension)	−0.254**	−0.247**
	(0.080)	(0.080)
Committee Chair	0.104	0.104
	(0.116)	(0.115)
Nonwhite Chair	0.431*	0.410*
	(0.178)	(0.178)
Majority Party Member	0.066*	0.068*
	(0.032)	(0.032)
% Nonwhite in District	0.146	0.100
	(0.177)	(0.184)
Seniority (Terms)	0.008	0.008
	(0.005)	(0.005)
Vote Share (Lagged)	0.004*	0.003*
	(0.002)	(0.002)
LGBTQ Lawmaker	0.086	0.088
	(0.105)	(0.106)
Female Lawmaker	0.148*	0.155*
	(0.060)	(0.060)
Intercept	0.286	0.332
	(0.271)	(0.271)
Term Fixed Effects	✓	✓
R^2	0.162	0.166
Adjusted R^2	0.150	0.154
Observations	1,350	1,350

$^{*}p<0.05$; $^{**}p<0.01$; $^{***}p<0.001$

Note: Consistent with descriptive plot reported in Figure 1, nonwhite lawmakers make more evidence-based race statements than white lawmakers. Nonwhite Democrats are most likely to mention race-based evidence statements. Consistent with Figure 1, the dependent variable captures the natural log of the number of evidence-based race statements a legislator makes per term (DV = ln(Evidence + 1). Standard errors are robust and clustered by legislator.

4.4 Table 4.4: Previous Exposure to Racially Diverse Committees Does Not Predict Evidence Usage for Nonwhite Legislators

	Evidence (Nonwhite Lawmaker)		Evidence (Nonwhite Democrat)	
	1	2	3	4
Prop. Nonwhite on Committee in Prior Term (t-1)	−0.333	0.156	−0.340	0.176
	(0.924)	(0.834)	(0.922)	(0.832)
% Nonwhite on Committee in Current Term (t)	0.548	0.666	0.541	0.672
	(1.002)	(1.133)	(1.016)	(1.153)
Democrat		−17.080		
		(21.458)		
Power Committee	0.171	0.117	0.173	0.121
	(0.131)	(0.134)	(0.131)	(0.134)
# of Hearings	0.003*	0.002	0.003**	0.003
	(0.001)	(0.002)	(0.001)	(0.002)
# of Bills Referred	0.0001	0.0001	0.0001	0.0001
	(0.0002)	(0.0002)	(0.0002)	(0.0002)
DW-NOMINATE (1st Dimension)		−31.102		−32.786
		(36.344)		(35.320)
DW-NOMINATE (2nd Dimension)		−1.788		−1.448
		(5.921)		(5.770)
Committee Chair		−0.314		−0.324
		(0.266)		(0.263)
Nonwhite Chair		0.807*		0.811*
		(0.348)		(0.348)
Majority Party Member		0.056		0.040
		(0.102)		(0.136)
Unified Government		−0.020		0.006
		(0.084)		(0.083)
% Nonwhite in District		0.405		0.381
		(0.497)		(0.538)
% Nonwhite in House		2.656		3.394
		(3.795)		(5.162)
Seniority (Terms)		−0.074		−0.084
		(0.076)		(0.104)
Vote Share (Lagged)		0.0003		0.001
		(0.005)		(0.006)
Intercept	0.556	6.901	0.529	−10.953
	(0.327)	(8.702)	(0.343)	(12.761)
Legislator Fixed Effects	✓	✓	✓	✓
Term Fixed Effects	✓		✓	
R^2	0.462	0.493	0.456	0.490
Adjusted R^2	0.263	0.210	0.263	0.211
Observations	534	350	519	340

$^{*}p<0.05$; $^{**}p<0.01$; $^{***}p<0.001$

Note: Unlike white lawmakers, nonwhite lawmakers' previous committee diversity does not predict evidence use in the current term. This is consistent with my argument that white lawmakers learn from nonwhite lawmakers who already have race-based expertise. The dependent variable captures the number of evidence-based race statements a nonwhite lawmaker makes per committee-term. Standard errors are robust and clustered by legislator.

4.5 Table 4.5: Previous Exposure to Racially Diverse Committees Predicts Evidence Usage for White Democrats on "Grandstanding Committees"

	Evidence (White Lawmaker)		Evidence (White Democrat)		Evidence (White Republican)	
	1	2	3	4	5	6
Prop. Nonwhite on Committee in Prior Term (t-1)	2.085	−0.140	**4.182****	**5.748*****	−0.815	−3.300*
	(1.535)	(1.908)	(1.297)	(1.237)	(3.625)	(1.614)
% Nonwhite on Committee in Current Term (t)	4.585*	3.667*	6.047***	6.664**	−1.021	4.714
	(1.795)	(1.776)	(1.443)	(2.561)	(9.676)	(3.280)
Democrat		19.900				
		(33.088)				
Power Committee	0.095	0.177	−0.103	−0.172	1.232	1.080
	(0.216)	(0.194)	(0.184)	(0.146)	(0.931)	(1.305)
# of Hearings	0.007**	0.007*	0.008***	0.008***	0.002	0.003
	(0.002)	(0.003)	(0.002)	(0.002)	(0.007)	(0.005)
# of Bills Referred	0.0002	0.0001	0.0003	0.0002	−0.0002	0.0004
	(0.0002)	(0.0002)	(0.0002)	(0.0002)	(0.001)	(0.001)
DW-NOMINATE (1st Dimension)		24.389		−93.165		51.228
		(36.321)		(48.388)		(53.560)
DW-NOMINATE (2nd Dimension)		8.884		−38.467*		15.938
		(18.706)		(15.854)		(19.508)
Committee Chair		0.329		0.163		0.426
		(0.334)		(0.356)		(0.490)
Majority Party Member		0.299*		−1.353		0.096
		(0.151)		(2.247)		(0.296)
Unified Government		0.168		0.809**		0.003
		(0.180)		(0.280)		(0.259)
% Nonwhite in District		0.252		−4.813		1.529
		(1.451)		(3.313)		(1.068)
% Nonwhite in House		−4.213		92.659		−7.867
		(8.963)		(105.854)		(8.427)
Seniority (Terms)		0.099		−1.984		0.060
		(0.168)		(2.296)		(0.135)
Vote Share (Lagged)		0.002		−0.025**		0.047**
		(0.011)		(0.009)		(0.018)
Intercept	−1.565*	−13.998	−2.295***	−26.265	−0.202	−34.083
	(0.705)	(20.833)	(0.466)	(16.736)	(2.120)	(32.433)
Legislator Fixed Effects	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Term Fixed Effects	✓		✓		✓	
R^2	0.672	0.747	0.740	0.872	0.708	0.815
Adjusted R^2	0.298	0.350	0.468	0.635	0.109	0.260
Observations	262	165	136	92	126	73

$^{*}p<0.05$; $^{**}p<0.01$; $^{***}p<0.001$

Note: Among white Democrats, exposure to racially diverse committees in the prior term (t–1) predicts greater use of evidence in the current term (t), holding constant current-term committee diversity. The sample is restricted to committees where performance-oriented hearings are common—Judiciary, Ways and Means, House Administration, Education, Budget, Energy and Commerce, Rules, and Foreign Affairs (Park 2021). Standard errors are robust and clustered by legislator.

4.6 Table 4.6: Legislators Who Make More Evidence-Based Race Statements Are more Effective At Legislating Race Bills (Negative Binominal)

	Action in Committee (Race Bills)	Action Beyond Commitee (Race Bills)	Passed House (Race Bills)	Passed Both Chambers (Race Bills)	Become Law (Race Bills)
	1	2	3	4	5
Total Race-Based Evidence Statements	**0.031***	**0.028**$^{+}$	0.030	0.039	0.039
	(0.016)	(0.016)	(0.020)	(0.035)	(0.035)
Nonwhite	0.281	0.182	−0.042	−0.379	−0.379
	(0.165)	(0.170)	(0.215)	(0.378)	(0.378)
Democrat	−0.842*	−0.879*	−1.614**	−1.149	−1.149
	(0.428)	(0.426)	(0.539)	(0.924)	(0.924)
% Nonwhite in District	−0.408	−0.127	0.133	−0.526	−0.526
	(0.393)	(0.375)	(0.463)	(0.785)	(0.785)
Nonwhite Chair	−0.077	−0.370	−0.395	0.878	0.878
	(0.445)	(0.473)	(0.521)	(0.774)	(0.774)
Committee Chair	0.951***	0.932***	1.032***	0.929*	0.929*
	(0.164)	(0.161)	(0.208)	(0.403)	(0.403)
In Majority Leadership	0.168	0.122	0.121	0.967	0.967
	(0.198)	(0.220)	(0.292)	(0.503)	(0.503)
In Minority Leadership	−0.791	−31.643***	−33.996***	−32.803***	−32.803***
	(1.062)	(0.216)	(0.208)	(0.334)	(0.334)
Subcommittee Chair	0.353**	0.362**	0.167	0.265	0.265
	(0.124)	(0.121)	(0.155)	(0.286)	(0.286)
Ideological Distance from Floor Median	−0.775	−0.767	−1.017	−3.270**	−3.270**
	(0.580)	(0.564)	(0.698)	(1.085)	(1.085)
Served in State Legislature	0.315*	0.252*	0.219	0.247	0.247
	(0.128)	(0.126)	(0.150)	(0.250)	(0.250)
Female	0.036	0.079	−0.065	−0.278	−0.278
	(0.146)	(0.132)	(0.162)	(0.308)	(0.308)
LGBTQ	0.053	0.083	−0.198	−0.411	−0.411
	(0.385)	(0.383)	(0.538)	(1.070)	(1.070)
DW-NOMINATE (1st Dimension)	−1.277*	−1.148*	−2.336***	−2.903*	−2.903*
	(0.527)	(0.489)	(0.631)	(1.223)	(1.223)
DW-NOMINATE (2nd Dimension)	0.216	0.215	−0.097	−0.187	−0.187
	(0.209)	(0.218)	(0.251)	(0.454)	(0.454)
Seniority	0.070***	0.082***	0.052***	0.061*	0.061*
	(0.012)	(0.012)	(0.016)	(0.027)	(0.027)
In Majority Party	0.952**	1.108***	0.889*	−0.129	−0.129
	(0.292)	(0.315)	(0.383)	(0.647)	(0.647)
Vote Share (Lagged)	−0.012	−0.007	−0.007	−0.007	−0.007
	(0.007)	(0.007)	(0.009)	(0.011)	(0.011)
Total Bills Introduced	0.017***	0.011**	0.014**	0.007	0.007
	(0.004)	(0.004)	(0.005)	(0.010)	(0.010)
Intercept	−1.175	−1.587*	−0.948	−0.359	−0.359
	(0.661)	(0.683)	(0.816)	(1.350)	(1.350)
Term Fixed Effects	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Observations	1,344	1,344	1,344	1,344	1,344

$^{+}p<0.1$; $^{*}p<0.05$; $^{**}p<0.01$; $^{***}p<0.001$

Note: Lawmakers who make more evidence-based statements are more effective at advancing and passing race bills when estimated using Negative Binominal models. Standard errors are robust and clustered by legislator.

4.7 Table 4.7: Legislators Who Make More Evidence-Based Race Statements Are more Effective At Legislating Race Bills (Legislator FE)

	Action in Committee (Race Bills)	Action Beyond Commitee (Race Bills)	Passed House (Race Bills)	Passed Both Chambers (Race Bills)	Become Law (Race Bills)
	1	2	3	4	5
Total Race-Based Evidence Statements	**0.040***	0.032	**0.028***	−0.005	−0.005
	(0.018)	(0.018)	(0.014)	(0.006)	(0.006)
Nonwhite	−0.191	−0.073	−0.011	0.034	0.034
	(0.162)	(0.140)	(0.116)	(0.059)	(0.059)
Democrat	4.503	2.379	1.156	0.284	0.284
	(2.783)	(2.108)	(2.130)	(1.011)	(1.011)
% Nonwhite in District	0.539	0.447	0.215	−0.049	−0.049
	(0.370)	(0.342)	(0.248)	(0.107)	(0.107)
Nonwhite Chair	1.288	0.600	0.387	0.390	0.390
	(0.873)	(0.784)	(0.547)	(0.292)	(0.292)
Committee Chair	0.994***	1.001***	0.553***	0.089	0.089
	(0.214)	(0.213)	(0.166)	(0.074)	(0.074)
In Majority Leadership	0.268	0.111	0.073	0.111	0.111
	(0.164)	(0.146)	(0.108)	(0.080)	(0.080)
In Minority Leadership	−0.166	−0.278	−0.156	−0.068	−0.068
	(0.194)	(0.202)	(0.118)	(0.096)	(0.096)
Subcommittee Chair	0.314***	0.310***	0.069	0.023	0.023
	(0.087)	(0.082)	(0.057)	(0.032)	(0.032)
Ideological Distance from Floor Median	0.576	0.263	−0.303	0.292	0.292
	(1.369)	(1.173)	(1.157)	(0.413)	(0.413)
Served in State Legislature	1.819**	1.511**	1.140*	−0.032	−0.032
	(0.671)	(0.550)	(0.558)	(0.246)	(0.246)
Female	1.101	0.574	1.459	0.024	0.024
	(0.953)	(0.773)	(0.762)	(0.350)	(0.350)
LGBTQ	1.403	0.602	1.289	−0.023	−0.023
	(1.214)	(0.987)	(0.910)	(0.434)	(0.434)
DW-NOMINATE (1st Dimension)	4.585	2.630	1.370	0.492	0.492
	(2.897)	(2.207)	(2.128)	(0.965)	(0.965)
DW-NOMINATE (2nd Dimension)	1.631	0.721	0.183	−0.038	−0.038
	(1.034)	(0.832)	(0.760)	(0.367)	(0.367)
Seniority	0.051*	0.057**	0.013	0.005	0.005
	(0.021)	(0.020)	(0.014)	(0.008)	(0.008)
In Majority Party	0.501	0.343	0.021	0.174	0.174
	(0.621)	(0.525)	(0.517)	(0.184)	(0.184)
Vote Share (Lagged)	−0.003	−0.003	−0.001	−0.001	−0.001
	(0.004)	(0.003)	(0.003)	(0.002)	(0.002)
Total Bills Introduced	0.007	0.006	0.005	0.001	0.001
	(0.005)	(0.005)	(0.003)	(0.002)	(0.002)
Intercept	−3.991	−2.164	−1.971	−0.285	−0.285
	(2.327)	(1.814)	(1.777)	(0.851)	(0.851)
Legislator Fixed Effects	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
R^2	0.639	0.610	0.518	0.431	0.431
Adjusted R^2	0.300	0.244	0.066	−0.102	−0.102
Observations	1,344	1,344	1,344	1,344	1,344

$^{*}p<0.05$; $^{**}p<0.01$; $^{***}p<0.001$

Note: Lawmakers who make more evidence-based statements are more effective at advancing and passing race bills when estimated using legislator fixed effects. Standard errors are robust and clustered by legislator.

4.8 Table 4.8: Race-Based Expertise and the Committee Advancement of In-Jurisdiction Race Bills

	In-Jurisdiction Race Bills Reported Out of Committee (Full Sample)	In-Jurisdiction Race Bills Reported Out of Committee (Democrats Only)	In-Jurisdiction Race Bills Reported Out of Committee (Republicans Only)
	1	2	3
Total Race-Based Evidence Statements	**0.014***	**0.015***	−0.003
	(0.007)	(0.008)	(0.003)
Nonwhite	0.018	0.022	−0.011
	(0.015)	(0.020)	(0.012)
Democrat	−0.034	—	—
	(0.035)		
% Nonwhite in District	0.002	−0.005	−0.047
	(0.037)	(0.056)	(0.041)
Nonwhite Chair	−0.184*	−0.207	—
	(0.088)	(0.122)	
Committee Chair	0.063	0.090	0.039
	(0.056)	(0.090)	(0.050)
In Majority Leadership	0.007	−0.020	0.153
	(0.038)	(0.033)	(0.158)
In Minority Leadership	−0.017	−0.022	0.010
	(0.015)	(0.024)	(0.011)
Subcommittee Chair	0.017	0.017	0.008
	(0.016)	(0.023)	(0.018)
Ideological Distance from Floor Median	−0.022	0.042	1.422
	(0.045)	(0.188)	(1.164)
Served in State Legislature	−0.009	−0.010	−0.005
	(0.010)	(0.014)	(0.009)
Female	0.007	0.006	0.007
	(0.013)	(0.016)	(0.018)
LGBTQ	0.015	0.012	—
	(0.038)	(0.040)	
DW-NOMINATE (1st Dimension)	−0.012	0.078	−1.380
	(0.041)	(0.157)	(1.125)
DW-NOMINATE (2nd Dimension)	0.031	0.048	0.035
	(0.019)	(0.027)	(0.026)
Seniority	0.004**	0.002	0.005**
	(0.001)	(0.002)	(0.002)
In Majority Party	0.007	0.034	0.562
	(0.021)	(0.072)	(0.455)
Vote Share (Lagged)	−0.0001	0.0004	−0.001
	(0.0005)	(0.001)	(0.001)
Total Bills Introduced	0.002*	0.003	0.001
	(0.001)	(0.002)	(0.001)
Intercept	−0.055	−0.086	−0.212
	(0.051)	(0.068)	(0.208)
Term Fixed Effects	✓	✓	✓
R^2	0.111	0.133	0.173
Adjusted R^2	0.094	0.107	0.137
Observations	1,344	818	526

$^{*}p<0.05$; $^{**}p<0.01$; $^{***}p<0.001$

Note: The table reports models estimating the association between evidence-based race speech and the number of race bills a legislator sponsors that are reported out of committee, restricting the sample to race bills whose primary committee of referral is a committee on which the sponsor served in that Congress. The dependent variables are the number of in-jurisdiction race bills reported out of committee, for the full sample and only Democrats or Republicans. Standard errors are robust and clustered by legislator.

4.9 Table 4.9: White Legislators Cite Fewer Non-Matching Sources on Racially Diverse Committees

	Non-Matching Sources (White Lawmakers)		Non-Matching Sources (White Democrats)		Non-Matching Sources (White Republicans)	
	1	2	3	4	5	6
Proportion of Nonwhite Lawmakers on Committee	**−0.240***	−0.223	**−0.330***	**−0.431***	−0.142	0.026
	(0.121)	(0.151)	(0.161)	(0.217)	(0.174)	(0.230)
Total Race Statements	0.00003	0.001	−0.0004	0.002	0.0004	−0.006
	(0.003)	(0.003)	(0.004)	(0.004)	(0.005)	(0.005)
Total Nonwhite Unique Sources (1st Half of Term)	−0.003*	−0.004*	−0.002	−0.001	−0.005*	−0.004
	(0.002)	(0.002)	(0.002)	(0.002)	(0.002)	(0.003)
Total White Unique Sources (2nd Half of Term)	0.289***	0.265***	0.313***	0.304***	0.265***	0.206***
	(0.012)	(0.015)	(0.017)	(0.016)	(0.015)	(0.023)
Power Committee	0.040*	0.041	0.047	0.073*	0.046	0.009
	(0.019)	(0.025)	(0.026)	(0.032)	(0.030)	(0.034)
# of Hearings	−0.00005	−0.0003	−0.0001	−0.0004	−0.00000	−0.0005
	(0.0001)	(0.0002)	(0.0002)	(0.0003)	(0.0002)	(0.0003)
# of Bills Referred	−0.00002	−0.0001	−0.00003	−0.0001	−0.00003	−0.0001
	(0.00002)	(0.00003)	(0.00003)	(0.00004)	(0.00003)	(0.00004)
Democrat		−0.783				
		(0.541)				
DW-NOMINATE (1st Dimension)		−0.273		0.013		−0.753
		(0.634)		(0.414)		(1.040)
DW-NOMINATE (2nd Dimension)		−0.509		−0.853***		−0.209
		(0.278)		(0.230)		(0.485)
Committee Chair		0.020		−0.046		0.097*
		(0.038)		(0.046)		(0.048)
Majority Party Member		−0.024		−0.010		−0.007
		(0.022)		(0.050)		(0.039)
Unified Government		0.016		0.020		−0.021
		(0.023)		(0.031)		(0.028)
% Nonwhite in District		0.126		0.244		0.334
		(0.246)		(0.325)		(0.387)
% Nonwhite in House		−1.380		−2.032		−1.080
		(0.831)		(1.534)		(0.930)
Seniority (Terms)		0.026		0.031		0.022
		(0.018)		(0.035)		(0.016)
Vote Share (Lagged)		0.001		−0.0005		0.004
		(0.001)		(0.001)		(0.003)
Intercept	0.417***	0.337	−0.164***	−0.260	0.465***	−0.066
	(0.063)	(0.315)	(0.050)	(0.296)	(0.086)	(0.593)
Legislator Fixed Effects	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Term Fixed Effects	✓		✓		✓	
R^2	0.688	0.699	0.704	0.747	0.683	0.679
Adjusted R^2	0.522	0.479	0.575	0.591	0.468	0.378
Observations	1,935	1,181	875	575	1,060	606

*p<0.05; **p<0.01; ***p<0.001

Note: White legislators' non-matching sources decrease as committee diversity increases. This means that as committees become more diverse, white legislators rely less on sources not cited by nonwhite legislators, which is consistent with the idea that white legislators adapt their evidence to align with sources used by nonwhite lawmakers.

4.10 Table 4.10: When Race-Based Expertise Leads to Race Bill Passage

	Passed House (Democrats)	Passed House (Republicans)	Passed House (Democratic Majority)	Passed House (Republican Majority)	Passed House (Non-Race Bills)
	1	2	3	4	5
Total Race-Based Evidence Statements	**0.022***	0.0001	**0.024***	0.007	0.026
	(0.011)	(0.010)	(0.011)	(0.016)	(0.020)
Nonwhite	−0.009	−0.029	−0.019	0.008	−0.078
	(0.050)	(0.034)	(0.058)	(0.056)	(0.139)
Democrat	—	—	0.052	−0.262	−1.368**
			(0.102)	(0.123)	(0.452)
% Nonwhite in District	−0.0002	−0.161	0.073	−0.049	0.424
	(0.125)	(0.106)	(0.137)	(0.150)	(0.387)
Nonwhite Chair	−0.205	—	−0.258	—	−0.108
	(0.481)		(0.477)		(0.614)
Committee Chair	0.748***	0.257	0.679***	0.276*	2.412***
	(0.190)	(0.137)	(0.186)	(0.140)	(0.442)
In Majority Leadership	0.102	−0.156**	0.083	−0.212***	0.829
	(0.110)	(0.060)	(0.112)	(0.057)	(0.436)
In Minority Leadership	−0.139*	0.027	0.015	−0.069	−0.094
	(0.054)	(0.029)	(0.049)	(0.040)	(0.367)
Subcommittee Chair	0.071	−0.016	0.048	−0.019	0.263
	(0.051)	(0.063)	(0.051)	(0.066)	(0.137)
Ideological Distance from Floor Median	−0.550	−0.172	0.249	−0.541	−1.052*
	(0.775)	(0.194)	(0.166)	(0.720)	(0.436)
Served in State Legislature	0.064	0.007	0.038	0.031	−0.162
	(0.040)	(0.035)	(0.039)	(0.035)	(0.107)
Female	0.006	−0.066*	0.012	−0.029	0.079
	(0.038)	(0.029)	(0.048)	(0.039)	(0.125)
LGBTQ	−0.057	—	−0.112	0.018	0.266
	(0.069)		(0.058)		(0.190)
DW–NOMINATE (1st Dimension)	−0.785	−0.143	−0.225	−0.399	−0.865
	(0.771)	(0.147)	(0.146)	(0.703)	(0.504)
DW–NOMINATE (2nd Dimension)	0.004	0.001	0.014	−0.108	0.748***
	(0.059)	(0.099)	(0.051)	(0.060)	(0.167)
Seniority	0.013**	0.013***	0.022***	0.005	−0.035*
	(0.005)	(0.004)	(0.006)	(0.007)	(0.015)
In Majority Party	−0.091	0.687	—	—	0.160
	(0.306)	(0.478)			(0.212)
Vote Share (Lagged)	−0.002	−0.002	−0.004	0.001	−0.004
	(0.002)	(0.001)	(0.002)	(0.002)	(0.005)
Total Bills Introduced	0.005*	0.003	0.006**	0.002	0.047***
	(0.002)	(0.002)	(0.002)	(0.002)	(0.005)
Intercept	−0.012	0.307	−0.079	0.570**	1.619**
	(0.228)	(0.229)	(0.201)	(0.199)	(0.569)
Term Fixed Effects	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
R^2	0.228	0.186	0.251	0.157	0.336
Adjusted R^2	0.204	0.150	0.231	0.124	0.323
Observations	818	526	807	537	1,344

$^{*}p<0.05$; $^{**}p<0.01$; $^{***}p<0.001$

Note: Democrats and Democratic majorities are associated with race-based expertise facilitating race-bill passage in the House. There is not a statistically significant relationship between Republicans' race-based expertise and race-bill passage. As expected, race-based expertise is not associated with increased passage for bills unrelated to race.

4.11 Table 4.11: Legislators Who Make More Evidence-Based Race Statements Are More Effective At Legislating Race Bills (Lagged Evidence Variable)

	Action in Committee (Race Bills)	Action Beyond Committee (Race Bills)	Passed House (Race Bills)	Passed Both Chambers (Race Bills)	Became Law (Race Bills)
	1	2	3	4	5
Lagged Race-Based Evidence Statements	**0.038***	**0.036****	0.019	**0.010***	**0.010***
	(0.016)	(0.014)	(0.011)	(0.005)	(0.005)
Nonwhite	0.015	−0.019	−0.049	−0.008	−0.008
	(0.101)	(0.086)	(0.064)	(0.032)	(0.032)
Democrat	−0.285	−0.288	−0.356*	−0.090	−0.090
	(0.275)	(0.241)	(0.177)	(0.105)	(0.105)
On Race Committee	0.005	−0.076	−0.033	−0.037*	−0.037*
	(0.083)	(0.070)	(0.047)	(0.018)	(0.018)
% Nonwhite in District	−0.177	0.018	0.027	−0.112	−0.112
	(0.264)	(0.202)	(0.143)	(0.074)	(0.074)
Nonwhite Chair	0.421	−0.099	−0.034	0.125	0.125
	(0.882)	(0.731)	(0.491)	(0.233)	(0.233)
Committee Chair	0.995***	0.915***	0.559***	0.144	0.144
	(0.212)	(0.214)	(0.151)	(0.080)	(0.080)
In Majority Leadership	0.294	0.163	0.131	0.154	0.154
	(0.195)	(0.165)	(0.149)	(0.112)	(0.112)
In Minority Leadership	−0.111	−0.134	−0.111	−0.039	−0.039
	(0.152)	(0.121)	(0.065)	(0.028)	(0.028)
Subcommittee Chair	0.301**	0.258**	0.083	0.001	0.001
	(0.097)	(0.091)	(0.062)	(0.029)	(0.029)
Ideological Distance from Floor Median	0.030	−0.051	0.085	−0.111	−0.111
	(0.340)	(0.296)	(0.224)	(0.107)	(0.107)
Served in State Legislature	0.106	0.083	0.051	0.013	0.013
	(0.070)	(0.064)	(0.043)	(0.019)	(0.019)
Female	0.014	0.052	−0.034	−0.051*	−0.051*
	(0.091)	(0.078)	(0.052)	(0.021)	(0.021)
LGBTQ	0.157	0.109	−0.017	−0.010	−0.010
	(0.275)	(0.218)	(0.153)	(0.075)	(0.075)
DW-NOMINATE (1st Dimension)	−0.488	−0.393	−0.495**	−0.142	−0.142
	(0.324)	(0.266)	(0.190)	(0.106)	(0.106)
DW-NOMINATE (2nd Dimension)	0.363**	0.269*	0.039	−0.003	−0.003
	(0.129)	(0.115)	(0.077)	(0.038)	(0.038)
Seniority	0.040***	0.045***	0.018**	0.008**	0.008**
	(0.009)	(0.008)	(0.006)	(0.003)	(0.003)
In Majority Party	0.210	0.196	0.145	−0.003	−0.003
	(0.167)	(0.151)	(0.108)	(0.047)	(0.047)
Vote Share (Lagged)	−0.004	−0.002	−0.001	−0.0002	−0.0002
	(0.004)	(0.003)	(0.002)	(0.001)	(0.001)
Total Bills Introduced	0.011**	0.007*	0.005*	−0.00002	−0.00002
	(0.003)	(0.003)	(0.002)	(0.001)	(0.001)
Intercept	0.224	0.194	0.436	0.222	0.222
	(0.482)	(0.468)	(0.445)	(0.185)	(0.185)
Term Fixed Effects	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
R^2	0.373	0.359	0.249	0.116	0.116
Adjusted R^2	0.348	0.334	0.219	0.081	0.081
Observations	711	711	711	711	711

$^{*}p<0.05$; $^{**}p<0.01$; $^{***}p<0.001$

Note: Race-based experts in a prior term are more likely to advance and pass race bills in the current term. Standard errors are robust and clustered by legislator.

5 Log Transformation of Dependent Variables

5.1 Explanation of Transformation

Two primary dependent variables—“Evidence” and “Matching Sources”—exhibit right-skewed distributions. This means that most observations are concentrated at the lower end of the scale, with a smaller number of extreme values extending the upper tail. The first two rows of Table 5.1 report the mean, standard deviation, range, and kurtosis for each variable prior to transformation. The relatively low means compared to the upper bounds of the ranges suggest substantial skewness. In addition, both variables have kurtosis values exceeding three—the benchmark for a normal distribution—indicating heavy tails and the presence of outliers. Because non-normally distributed dependent variables can violate key assumptions of Ordinary Least Squares (OLS) regression, I apply a natural log transformation to both variables. Specifically, I add one to each value and then take the natural logarithm. Rows three and four of Table 5.1 display the same summary statistics for the transformed variables. As expected, the upper bound of the range is compressed, and the kurtosis values move closer to those expected under a normal distribution.

Table 5.1: Summary Statistics for Skewed Dependent Variables

Variable	Mean	Std. Deviation	Range	Kurtosis
Evidence	1.05	1.87	0 – 19	22.6
Matching Sources	1.27	0.369	0 – 8	5.29
Evidence (Natural Log Transformation)	0.496	0.597	0 – 3	0.89
Matching Sources (Natural Log Transformation)	1.27	0.854	0 – 8	0.70

Although transforming the dependent variables is necessary due to the severity of the skew, such transformations can introduce irregularities that may alter regression results. To assess this, Tables 5.2 and 5.3 present the main regression models using the original, untransformed dependent variables. The results are consistent to those reported in the main text. This suggests that the log transformations do not alter the core findings of the analysis. However, by reducing skewness, the transformed variables better satisfy the assumptions of Ordinary Least Squares (OLS) regression and thus are more appropriate dependent variables.

5.2 Table 5.2: White Legislators Make More Evidence-Based Race Statements on Racially Diverse Committees (Non-Transformed DV)

	Evidence (White Lawmaker)		Evidence (White Democrat)		Evidence (White Republican)	
	1	2	3	4	5	6
Proportion of Nonwhite Legislators on Committee	**1.826***	**1.821***	**2.637**$^{+}$	1.667	1.275	1.396
	(0.769)	(0.791)	(1.366)	(1.319)	(0.925)	(1.120)
Power Committee	0.379*	0.332	0.285	0.413	0.526**	0.273
	(0.161)	(0.199)	(0.278)	(0.332)	(0.192)	(0.176)
# of Hearings	0.004**	0.004*	0.007**	0.008*	0.003	−0.001
	(0.001)	(0.002)	(0.003)	(0.003)	(0.002)	(0.001)
# of Bills Referred	0.0004*	0.0004*	0.001	0.001	0.0001	0.0001
	(0.0002)	(0.0002)	(0.0003)	(0.0004)	(0.0002)	(0.0002)
Democrat		−6.284**				
		(2.312)				
DW-NOMINATE (1st Dimension)		−0.001		−0.008		0.009
		(0.006)		(0.007)		(0.007)
DW-NOMINATE (2nd Dimension)		−2.418		−2.747		−1.822
		(2.531)		(2.764)		(5.425)
Committee Chair		−2.837**		−3.082*		−2.510
		(1.056)		(1.308)		(1.912)
Nonwhite Chair		0.379		0.878		−0.278
		(0.645)		(1.073)		(0.470)
Unified Government		0.354*		0.528		−0.243
		(0.153)		(0.271)		(0.177)
% Nonwhite in District		−0.047		0.110		−0.253
		(0.129)		(0.167)		(0.163)
% Nonwhite in House		0.433		−1.126		1.681
		(1.017)		(1.573)		(1.609)
Seniority (Terms)		−6.616		−3.290		−26.587*
		(9.650)		(6.233)		(10.625)
Vote Share (Lagged)		0.093		0.104		0.421
		(0.201)		(0.141)		(0.219)
Intercept	−0.001	4.939***	−1.070*	−1.419	0.270	2.285
	(0.374)	(1.223)	(0.488)	(1.685)	(0.387)	(2.894)
Legislator Fixed Effects	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Term Fixed Effects	✓		✓		✓	
R^2	0.375	0.450	0.394	0.470	0.381	0.460
Adjusted R^2	0.045	0.054	0.135	0.150	−0.032	−0.037
Observations	1,935	1,181	875	575	1,060	606

$^{+}p<0.1$; $^{*}p<0.05$; $^{**}p<0.01$; $^{***}p<0.001$

Note: Consistent with the primary finding reported in Table 3, White (Democratic) lawmakers cite more evidence when serving on racially diverse committees. In this model, I use the non-transformed version of the Evidence variable. Standard errors are robust and clustered by legislator. In both model specifications, the results are consistent.

5.3 Table 5.3: Nonwhite and White Legislators Cite Similar Sources on Racially Diverse Committees (Non-Transformed DV)

	Matching Sources (White Lawmakers)		Matching Sources (White Democrats)		Matching Sources (White Republicans)	
	1	2	3	4	5	6
Proportion of Nonwhite Legislators on Committee	0.337	0.337	**0.552***	**0.769***	0.122	−0.154
	(0.199)	(0.255)	(0.273)	(0.378)	(0.278)	(0.405)
Total Race Statements	−0.006	−0.008	−0.005	−0.009	−0.007	0.008
	(0.005)	(0.006)	(0.007)	(0.007)	(0.008)	(0.009)
Total Nonwhite Unique Sources (1st Half of Term)	0.007**	0.007*	0.004	0.003	0.010**	0.007
	(0.003)	(0.003)	(0.004)	(0.004)	(0.003)	(0.004)
Total White Unique Sources (2nd Half of Term)	0.502***	0.542***	0.447***	0.443***	0.559***	0.686***
	(0.024)	(0.037)	(0.036)	(0.043)	(0.028)	(0.037)
Power Committee	−0.052	−0.044	−0.049	−0.089	−0.081	−0.008
	(0.031)	(0.040)	(0.041)	(0.053)	(0.048)	(0.050)
# of Hearings	0.00003	0.0004	0.0001	0.0005	−0.0001	0.001
	(0.0002)	(0.0004)	(0.0003)	(0.001)	(0.0003)	(0.0004)
# of Bills Referred	0.00003	0.0001	0.0001	0.0001*	0.00004	0.0001
	(0.00003)	(0.00004)	(0.00005)	(0.0001)	(0.0001)	(0.0001)
Democrat		1.283				
		(0.820)				
DW-NOMINATE (1st Dimension)		0.009		−0.827		1.240
		(0.907)		(0.567)		(1.569)
DW-NOMINATE (2nd Dimension)		0.593		0.982**		0.349
		(0.400)		(0.374)		(0.710)
Committee Chair		−0.015		0.094		−0.140*
		(0.069)		(0.087)		(0.070)
Majority Party Member		0.022		0.032		0.007
		(0.035)		(0.080)		(0.057)
Unified Government		−0.042		−0.053		0.027
		(0.037)		(0.046)		(0.041)
% Nonwhite in District		−0.125		−0.426		−0.477
		(0.397)		(0.509)		(0.564)
% Nonwhite in House		1.227		0.781		1.661
		(1.215)		(2.575)		(1.385)
Seniority (Terms)		−0.027		−0.001		−0.034
		(0.026)		(0.058)		(0.024)
Vote Share (Lagged)		−0.002		0.001		−0.006
		(0.002)		(0.002)		(0.004)
Intercept	−0.527***	−0.721	0.271***	0.095	−0.617***	0.046
	(0.109)	(0.520)	(0.079)	(0.459)	(0.150)	(0.887)
Legislator Fixed Effects	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Term Fixed Effects	✓		✓		✓	
R^2	0.724	0.780	0.705	0.757	0.754	0.856
Adjusted R^2	0.578	0.620	0.576	0.608	0.588	0.721
Observations	1,935	1,181	875	575	1,060	606

*p<0.05; **p<0.01; ***p<0.001

Note: Consistent with the primary finding reported in Table 5, White (Democratic) lawmakers cite the same sources of evidence in the second-half of a term when serving on racially diverse committees as nonwhite lawmakers on the same committee in the first half of a term. In this model, I use the non-transformed version of the Matching Source variable. Standard errors are robust and clustered by legislator. In both model specifications, the results are consistent.

5.4 Table 5.4: Past Committee Diversity Predicts Present Evidence Use (Non-Transformed DV)

	Evidence (White Lawmakers)		Evidence (White Democrats)		Evidence (White Republicans)	
	1	2	3	4	5	6
Prop. Nonwhite on Committee in Prior Term (t-1)	3.649	3.061	4.825	**8.809***	4.159	1.313
	(2.490)	(2.719)	(3.923)	(4.465)	(2.378)	(2.492)
% Nonwhite on Committee in Current Term (t)	2.937	2.932	5.432	1.068	3.707	7.247
	(3.573)	(4.236)	(5.993)	(7.178)	(3.700)	(5.086)
Democrat		−14.854				
		(72.528)				
Power Committee	0.376	0.245	−0.069	−0.033	1.515*	2.403
	(0.480)	(0.413)	(0.628)	(0.491)	(0.705)	(1.454)
# of Hearings	0.017**	0.014*	0.018**	0.017*	0.012	−0.003
	(0.006)	(0.006)	(0.007)	(0.008)	(0.010)	(0.008)
# of Bills Referred	0.001	0.001	0.001	0.001	−0.002*	−0.002
	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)
DW-NOMINATE (1st Dimension)		−14.379		−225.212		−36.814
		(89.036)		(226.890)		(66.209)
DW-NOMINATE (2nd Dimension)		−5.433		1.672		−15.312
		(27.423)		(50.208)		(23.067)
Committee Chair		1.691		3.012		0.599
		(1.357)		(2.294)		(0.687)
Majority Party Member		0.682		1.304*		−0.446
		(0.386)		(0.652)		(0.303)
Unified Government		0.150		0.647		0.010
		(0.292)		(0.593)		(0.377)
% Nonwhite in District		−1.819		−17.627		1.755
		(3.184)		(9.606)		(2.634)
% Nonwhite in House		0.482		15.711		−32.084**
		(28.373)		(18.554)		(12.206)
Seniority (Terms)		0.011		−0.025		0.380
		(0.573)		(0.337)		(0.206)
Vote Share (Lagged)		−0.009		−0.050		0.065*
		(0.016)		(0.026)		(0.030)
Intercept	−0.819	7.416	−0.183	−65.519	−2.661	20.335
	(1.707)	(44.347)	(3.147)	(66.557)	(1.834)	(37.948)
Legislator Fixed Effects	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Term Fixed Effects	✓		✓		✓	
R^2	0.474	0.561	0.541	0.643	0.495	0.533
Adjusted R^2	−0.013	0.003	0.154	0.153	−0.151	−0.231
Observations	585	367	290	200	295	167

$^{*}p<0.05$; $^{**}p<0.01$; $^{***}p<0.001$

Note: Consistent with the primary finding reported in Table 6, White (Democrats) who are exposed to racially diverse committees in the prior term (t-1) continue to cite evidence in the present term (t), regardless of how racially diverse their committee is in the current term. In this model, I use the non-transformed version of the Evidence variable. Standard errors are robust and clustered by legislator. In both model specifications, the results are consistent.

6 Validating Race Bills Measure

Top 100 Race Bigrams from Training Set

Race Bigrams				
“african american”	“racial profil”	“asian american”	“peopl color”	“women color”
“nativ american”	“black women”	“racial wealth”	“black american”	“hispan communiti”
“racial ethnic”	“american indian”	“communiti color”	“race ethnic”	“latino communiti”
“base race”	“black communiti”	“black latino”	“american latino”	“ethnic minor”
“hispan worker”	“racial bias”	“racial minor”	“african-american communiti”	“close racial”
“critic race”	“hispan caucus”	“minor communiti”	“race theori”	“racial dispar”
“racial justic”	“affirm action”	“american hispan”	“black brown”	“black caucus”
“color women”	“congression black”	“hispan women”	“impact black”	“impact racial”
“minor women”	“minority-own busi”	“percent african-american”	“percent black”	“percent latino”
“race discrimin”	“racial discrimin”	“racial equiti”	“racial group”	“african-american hispan”
“alleg racial”	“among african”	“among asian”	“among hispan”	“asian communiti”
“believ racial”	“black live”	“black male”	“black matern”	“black mother”
“black white”	“color skin”	“director asian”	“hispan american”	“hispan black”
“hispan latino”	“hispan latinx”	“hispan popul”	“issu racial”	“jim crow”
“latino parent”	“minority- women-own”	“pacif island”	“percent hispan”	“race gender”
“racial divers”	“racial gender”	“racial inequ”	“rate black”	“women african”
“women black”	“aapi communiti”	“abort race”	“advanc racial”	“african-american borrow”
“african-american latino”	“african-american parent”	“african-american women”	“american asian”	“among black”
“among racial”	“anoth hispan”	“asian-american voter”	“associ hispan”	“black student”
“black wealth”	“black woman”	“born hispan”	“brown communiti”	“center racial”
“color disproportion”	“color low-incom”	“communiti asian”	“concentr hispan”	“concern hispan”
“congression hispan”	“end racial”	“environment racism”	“ethnic racial”	“femal african-american”
“first black”	“group hispan”	“hbcus district”	“hispan asian”	“hispan chamber”
“hispan group”	“hispan male”	“impact hispan”	“latino district”	“latino senior”
“latino worker”	“level hispan”	“minority-own firm”	“minority-serv institut”	“multiraci categori”

Top 25 Bills by Race Bigram Count

Bill Title	Sponsor	Term	Race Bigram Count	Race Sentences
Jobs and Justice Act of 2020	Rep. Bass, Karen (D-CA)	116	921	0.66%
Health Equity and Accountability Act of 2022	Rep. Kelly, Robin L. (D-IL)	117	729	1.32%
Health Equity and Accountability Act of 2020	Rep. Garcia, Jesus G. "Chuy" (D-IL)	116	437	1.45%
Health Equity and Accountability Act of 2018	Rep. Lee, Barbara (D-CA)	115	361	1.47%
Health Equity and Accountability Act of 2016	Rep. Kelly, Robin L. (D-IL)	114	353	1.55%
Health Equity and Accountability Act of 2014	Rep. Roybal-Allard, Lucille (D-CA)	113	333	1.53%
Health Equity and Accountability Act of 2011	Rep. Lee, Barbara (D-CA)	112	317	1.69%
Navajo-Hopi Little Colorado River Water Rights Settlement Act of 2012	Rep. Quayle, Benjamin (R-AZ)	112	297	7.12%
Jobs and Justice Act of 2018	Rep. Richmond, Cedric L. (D-LA)	115	240	0.62%
Native American Languages Amendments Act of 2006	Rep. Case, Ed (D-HI)	109	237	22.09%
Healthcare Equality and Accountability Act	Rep. Honda, Michael M. (D-CA)	109	203	1.41%
EHDC Act of 2020	Rep. Kelly, Robin L. (D-IL)	116	202	1.26%
Honoring Promises to Native Nations Act	Rep. Kilmer, Derek (D-WA)	117	200	2.82%
Consolidated Appropriations Act, 2021	Rep. Cuellar, Henry (D-TX)	116	190	0.13%
Higher Education Opportunity Act	Rep. Miller, George (D-CA)	110	180	0.50%
Native Culture, Language, and Access for Success in Schools Act	Rep. Baca, Joe (D-CA)	112	175	3.43%
Native Culture, Language, and Access for Success in Schools Act	Rep. Kildee, Dale E. (D-MI)	112	175	3.43%
Healthcare Equality and Accountability Act	Rep. Cummings, Elijah E. (D-MD)	108	168	1.25%
BLUE Pacific Act	Rep. Case, Ed (D-HI)	117	156	9.87%
Native American Languages Act Amendments Act of 2003	Rep. Wilson, Heather (R-NM)	108	155	23.24%
College Affordability Act	Rep. Scott, Robert C. "Bobby" (D-VA)	116	151	0.34%
PRO–LIFE Act of 2022	Rep. Phillips, Dean (D-MN)	117	150	1.69%
Black Maternal Health Momnibus Act of 2021	Rep. Underwood, Lauren (D-IL)	117	147	2.71%
Native American Languages Act Amendments of 2003	Rep. Case, Ed (D-HI)	108	143	22.56%
Native American Languages Act Amendments Act of 2001	Rep. Mink, Patsy T. (D-HI)	107	138	22.48%

As a robustness check, I re-estimate the relationship between race-based evidence use and substantive representation using Legislative Effectiveness Scores (LES) (Volden and Wiseman 2014). I operationalize race-issue legislation with Lollis' (2025) measure of "race bills." Following the Policy Agendas Project major topics (as coded in the Congressional Bills Project) (Baumgartner and Jones 2002), Lollis identifies three policy areas—Education, Housing, and Law and Crime—in which nonwhite lawmakers introduce more legislation than white lawmakers (see also (Volden, Wiseman and Wittmer 2018) for a similar approach to gender-issue bills). All bills in these three categories were coded as race-issue bills; all others are coded as non-race bills. This measure trades specificity for breadth relative to the bill-text approach in the main text: "race bills" are defined by policy area rather than by each bill's language. Demonstrating robustness with this broader classification is useful precisely because it does not rely on the presence of race-related bigrams in statutory text.

Table 6.1 reports four OLS models. The dependent variables are, per legislator–term, the number of race-issue bills that (i) advanced beyond committee (ABC), (ii) passed the House (PASS), (iii) became law (LAW), and (iv) the legislator's LES on race-issue bills. The key independent variable is the total number of evidence-based race statements a member makes per term. Each model includes standard legislative effectiveness controls and term fixed effects (Volden and Wiseman 2014).

The results are consistent with the main-text findings. Legislators who more frequently cite evidence when discussing race are more likely to advance race-issue bills beyond committee, pass the House, and attain higher LES. As in the main text, the LAW coefficient is not statistically significant, which is unsurprising given that fewer than 5% of bills become law. Substantively, citing four additional evidence-based race statements per term corresponds to roughly the same effectiveness advantage as serving in the majority party, and citing ten such statements is comparable to serving as a committee chair. Other analyses reveal that, similar to the findings presented in-text, members who frequently cite evidence when discussing race are no more (or less) effective on bills outside race-issue domains.

6.1 Table 6.1: Legislators Who Make Evidence-Based Race Statements In Hearings Are More Effective At Legislating Race Bills (3 Bigram Measure)

	Action in Committee (Race Bills)	Action Beyond Commitee (Race Bills)	Passed House (Race Bills)	Passed Both Chambers (Race Bills)	Become Law (Race Bills)
	1	2	3	4	5
Total Race-Based Evidence Statements	**0.034***	**0.027***	**0.019***	−0.001	−0.001
	(0.014)	(0.013)	(0.009)	(0.002)	(0.002)
Nonwhite	0.078	0.049	−0.003	−0.004	−0.004
	(0.048)	(0.042)	(0.027)	(0.012)	(0.012)
Democrat	−0.155	−0.131	−0.139	−0.034	−0.034
	(0.120)	(0.100)	(0.071)	(0.035)	(0.035)
% Nonwhite in District	−0.078	−0.010	0.045	−0.024	−0.024
	(0.126)	(0.103)	(0.076)	(0.034)	(0.034)
Nonwhite Chair	0.389	0.049	0.027	0.026	0.026
	(0.755)	(0.608)	(0.408)	(0.131)	(0.131)
Committee Chair	0.577***	0.552***	0.391***	0.107*	0.107*
	(0.136)	(0.131)	(0.103)	(0.049)	(0.049)
In Majority Leadership	0.175	0.125	0.073	0.043	0.043
	(0.111)	(0.102)	(0.062)	(0.047)	(0.047)
In Minority Leadership	−0.023	−0.053	−0.045	−0.013	−0.013
	(0.068)	(0.035)	(0.024)	(0.010)	(0.010)
Subcommittee Chair	0.092*	0.081	0.011	0.006	0.006
	(0.046)	(0.043)	(0.029)	(0.015)	(0.015)
Ideological Distance from Floor Median	0.030	−0.003	0.037	−0.039	−0.039
	(0.164)	(0.141)	(0.107)	(0.037)	(0.037)
Served in State Legislature	0.068*	0.065*	0.036	0.002	0.002
	(0.032)	(0.029)	(0.019)	(0.009)	(0.009)
Female	0.003	0.011	−0.021	−0.015	−0.015
	(0.042)	(0.036)	(0.024)	(0.012)	(0.012)
LGBTQ	0.039	0.046	0.002	−0.038**	−0.038**
	(0.093)	(0.077)	(0.047)	(0.012)	(0.012)
DW-NOMINATE (1st Dimension)	−0.208	−0.162	−0.193*	−0.055	−0.055
	(0.147)	(0.119)	(0.089)	(0.039)	(0.039)
DW-NOMINATE (2nd Dimension)	0.086	0.074	0.015	−0.010	−0.010
	(0.053)	(0.046)	(0.031)	(0.013)	(0.013)
Seniority	0.016***	0.018***	0.007**	0.003*	0.003*
	(0.004)	(0.004)	(0.002)	(0.001)	(0.001)
In Majority Party	0.125	0.110	0.085	0.011	0.011
	(0.076)	(0.067)	(0.052)	(0.020)	(0.020)
Vote Share (Lagged)	−0.003*	−0.002	−0.002	−0.0004	−0.0004
	(0.002)	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.0004)	(0.0004)
Total Bills Introduced	0.004*	0.002	0.002	−0.0001	−0.0001
	(0.002)	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.0005)	(0.0005)
Intercept	0.228	0.197	0.245	0.205	0.205
	(0.146)	(0.140)	(0.130)	(0.116)	(0.116)
Term Fixed Effects	✓	✓	✓	✓	
R^2	0.231	0.221	0.172	0.058	0.058
Adjusted R^2	0.216	0.206	0.156	0.039	0.039
Observations	1,344	1,344	1,344	1,344	1,344

$^{*}p<0.05$; $^{**}p<0.01$; $^{***}p<0.001$

Note: Lawmakers who make more evidence-based race statements are more effective at advancing and pass race bills. Dependent variables in this model require a bill to mention at least 3 race bigrams to be classified as a race bill. Standard errors are robust and clustered by legislator.

6.2 Table 6.2: Legislators Who Make Evidence-Based Race Statements In Hearings Are More Effective At Legislating Race Issue Bills (LES)

	ABC (Race Bills)	PASS (Race Bills)	LAW (Race Bills)	LES (Race Bills)
	1	2	3	4
Total Race-Based Evidence Statements	**0.076****	**0.054****	0.008	**0.261*****
	(0.024)	(0.019)	(0.005)	(0.069)
Nonwhite	−0.035	−0.029	−0.020	−0.284
	(0.051)	(0.043)	(0.013)	(0.255)
Democrat	−0.198	−0.166	0.015	−0.459
	(0.142)	(0.125)	(0.032)	(0.627)
% Nonwhite in District	0.039	0.071	0.040	0.149
	(0.119)	(0.100)	(0.037)	(0.596)
Nonwhite Chair	−0.326	−0.340	−0.118	−1.900
	(0.263)	(0.238)	(0.098)	(1.430)
Committee Chair	0.444*	0.369*	0.149*	2.740*
	(0.205)	(0.181)	(0.058)	(1.240)
In Majority Leadership	0.305	0.302	0.049	1.360
	(0.221)	(0.192)	(0.047)	(1.420)
In Minority Leadership	−0.026	0.005	−0.020	−0.199
	(0.082)	(0.076)	(0.013)	(0.279)
Subcommittee Chair	0.040	0.059	0.006	0.294
	(0.061)	(0.054)	(0.019)	(0.281)
Ideological Distance from Floor Median	0.315	0.066	−0.055	1.140
	(0.186)	(0.151)	(0.037)	(0.849)
Served in State Legislature	−0.038	−0.042	−0.019	−0.091
	(0.043)	(0.039)	(0.011)	(0.211)
Female	−0.004	0.001	0.002	0.156
	(0.054)	(0.048)	(0.015)	(0.252)
LGBTQ	−0.018	−0.008	−0.038**	0.036
	(0.131)	(0.100)	(0.014)	(0.691)
DW-NOMINATE (1st Dimension)	−0.116	−0.078	0.036	−0.331
	(0.178)	(0.154)	(0.035)	(0.782)
DW-NOMINATE (2nd Dimension)	0.217**	0.116	0.004	0.509
	(0.077)	(0.063)	(0.013)	(0.322)
Seniority	−0.002	−0.002	0.001	−0.018
	(0.006)	(0.006)	(0.002)	(0.026)
In Majority Party	0.315***	0.142	−0.009	1.170**
	(0.091)	(0.073)	(0.022)	(0.418)
Vote Share (Lagged)	−0.00001	0.001	0.0004	−0.001
	(0.002)	(0.002)	(0.001)	(0.010)
Total Bills Introduced	0.007**	0.005**	0.001	0.034***
	(0.002)	(0.002)	(0.001)	(0.008)
Intercept	−0.076	0.044	−0.051	0.388
	(0.234)	(0.217)	(0.048)	(1.400)
Term Fixed Effects	✓	✓	✓	✓
R^2	0.172	0.134	0.064	0.124
Adjusted R^2	0.155	0.116	0.046	0.106
Observations	1,347	1,347	1,347	1,347

$^{*}p<0.05$; $^{**}p<0.01$; $^{***}p<0.001$

Note: Lawmakers who make more evidence-based race statements are more effective at legislating race-issue bills. ABC = bill received action beyond committee, PASS = bill passed the House, LAW = bill was signed into law, LES = legislative effectiveness score. Race-issue bills include education, housing, and law and crime bills. Standard errors are robust and clustered by legislator.

7 Addressing Potential Committee Selection Effects

7.1 Table 7.1: White Legislators Make More Evidence-Based Race Statements on Racially Diverse Committees—Stayers Sample (Any 3 Consecutive Terms)

	Evidence (White Lawmaker)		Evidence (White Democrat)		Evidence (White Republican)	
	1	2	3	4	5	6
Proportion of Nonwhite Lawmakers on Committee	1.888	1.959	**2.579***	1.582	−0.341	1.354
	(1.011)	(1.158)	(1.270)	(1.741)	(1.810)	(2.324)
Power Committee	−0.294	−0.157	−0.644	−0.270	0.201	0.256
	(0.212)	(0.176)	(0.468)	(0.387)	(0.702)	(1.152)
# of Hearings	0.003**	0.004*	0.006*	0.007	0.001	0.001
	(0.001)	(0.002)	(0.002)	(0.004)	(0.001)	(0.002)
# of Bills Referred	0.001**	0.0005**	0.001**	0.0005*	0.001	0.0001
	(0.0002)	(0.0002)	(0.0002)	(0.0002)	(0.001)	(0.001)
Democrat		37.692*				
		(15.624)				
DW-NOMINATE (1st Dimension)		43.248*		45.115*		35.934
		(18.846)		(22.119)		(36.263)
DW-NOMINATE (2nd Dimension)		17.661**		14.945		14.406
		(6.370)		(9.885)		(11.330)
Committee Chair		0.269		0.482		0.154
		(0.232)		(0.339)		(0.271)
Majority Party Member		0.133		0.216		−0.013
		(0.095)		(0.210)		(0.228)
Unified Government		0.011		0.068		−0.082
		(0.103)		(0.172)		(0.149)
% Nonwhite in District		0.506		−1.562		0.866
		(0.785)		(1.571)		(1.261)
% Nonwhite in House		−1.570		−3.775		−5.547
		(4.529)		(8.437)		(7.107)
Seniority (Terms)		−0.005		0.155		0.018
		(0.086)		(0.169)		(0.146)
Vote Share (Lagged)		0.007		0.001		0.023*
		(0.006)		(0.007)		(0.012)
Intercept	−0.056	−23.841*	−0.340	13.794	0.203	−21.873
	(0.319)	(9.512)	(0.423)	(7.315)	(0.423)	(20.545)
Legislator Fixed Effects	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Term Fixed Effects	✓		✓		✓	
R^2	0.446	0.574	0.515	0.607	0.449	0.536
Adjusted R^2	0.259	0.328	0.341	0.340	0.199	0.185
Observations	460	239	225	122	235	117

$^{*}p<0.05$; $^{**}p<0.01$; $^{***}p<0.001$

Note: White Democrats cite more race-based evidence statements as the percentage of nonwhite lawmakers on their committees increases when only including legislators who served three consecutive terms on the same committee in the sample. The dependent variable is the natural log of the total number of evidence-based statements made by a white lawmaker in a given committee-term (DV = ln(Evidence + 1)). Standard errors are robust and clustered by legislator.

7.2 Table 7.2: White Legislators Make More Evidence-Based Race Statements on Racially Diverse Committees—Dropping Freshmen Legislators

	Evidence (White Lawmaker)		Evidence (White Democrat)		Evidence (White Republican)	
	1	2	3	4	5	6
Proportion of Nonwhite Legislators on Committee	**0.864****	**0.962***	**0.926***	1.003	0.855	0.767
	(0.322)	(0.415)	(0.455)	(0.622)	(0.483)	(0.622)
Power Committee	0.153**	0.175*	0.124	0.200*	0.188*	0.164
	(0.058)	(0.069)	(0.092)	(0.102)	(0.079)	(0.100)
# of Hearings	0.002***	0.001	0.002**	0.002*	0.001*	−0.0002
	(0.0004)	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)
# of Bills Referred	0.0001	0.0001	0.0001	0.0001	0.00003	−0.00002
	(0.0001)	(0.0001)	(0.0001)	(0.0001)	(0.0001)	(0.0001)
Democrat		−1.900				
		(2.416)				
DW-NOMINATE (1st Dimension)		−1.052		−7.374		−0.168
		(2.952)		(10.967)		(3.281)
DW-NOMINATE (2nd Dimension)		−1.036		−2.195		−1.437
		(1.076)		(3.835)		(1.187)
Committee Chair		−0.036		0.065		−0.177
		(0.150)		(0.229)		(0.184)
Majority Party Member		0.081		0.279		−0.101
		(0.053)		(0.177)		(0.086)
Unified Government		0.009		0.042		−0.066
		(0.057)		(0.076)		(0.081)
% Nonwhite in District		0.434		−0.069		0.785
		(0.444)		(0.644)		(0.741)
% Nonwhite in House		−2.419		−7.340		−7.749*
		(3.176)		(6.877)		(3.819)
Seniority (Terms)		0.007		0.130		0.101
		(0.068)		(0.146)		(0.079)
Vote Share (Lagged)		0.002		−0.001		0.006
		(0.003)		(0.003)		(0.004)
Intercept	0.301*	1.629	−0.084	−3.232	0.276	0.651
	(0.147)	(1.220)	(0.170)	(4.964)	(0.197)	(1.780)
Legislator Fixed Effects	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Term Fixed Effects	✓		✓		✓	
R^2	0.462	0.497	0.472	0.516	0.463	0.494
Adjusted R^2	0.172	0.124	0.242	0.218	0.091	0.005
Observations	1,607	982	734	481	873	501

$^{*}p<0.05$; $^{**}p<0.01$; $^{***}p<0.001$

Note: White Democrats cite more race-based evidence statements as the percentage of nonwhite lawmakers on their committees increases when excluding freshmen legislators. The dependent variable is the natural log of the total number of evidence-based statements made by a white lawmaker in a given committee-term (DV = ln(Evidence + 1)). Standard errors are robust and clustered by legislator.

7.3 Table 7.3: White Legislators Make More Evidence-Based Race Statements on Racially Diverse Committees—Stayers Sample (First 3 Consecutive Terms)

	Evidence (White Lawmaker)		Evidence (White Democrat)		Evidence (White Republican)	
	1	2	3	4	5	6
Proportion of Nonwhite Legislators on Committee	1.154	1.472	**2.948***	2.273	−1.621	−1.091
	(1.249)	(1.498)	(1.456)	(2.325)	(1.875)	(1.888)
Power Committee	0.609	15.716***	0.667**	14.043**	−0.237	0.942
	(0.359)	(4.652)	(0.220)	(4.864)	(0.740)	(4.311)
# of Hearings	0.003**	0.005*	0.007***	0.015***	0.0003	−0.001
	(0.001)	(0.002)	(0.002)	(0.004)	(0.001)	(0.002)
# of Bills Referred	0.001*	0.001	0.001***	0.001**	0.0002	−0.001
	(0.0004)	(0.001)	(0.0003)	(0.0004)	(0.001)	(0.001)
Democrat		44.312**				
		(15.487)				
DW-NOMINATE (1st Dimension)		49.907**		36.210*		25.998
		(19.042)		(16.458)		(38.772)
DW-NOMINATE (2nd Dimension)		22.171***		16.982		8.167
		(5.175)		(8.936)		(13.608)
Committee Chair		0.398		0.585		0.399
		(0.279)		(0.301)		(0.228)
Majority Party Member		0.113		0.037		−0.176
		(0.112)		(0.245)		(0.197)
Unified Government		−0.003		0.028		−0.177
		(0.114)		(0.207)		(0.148)
% Nonwhite in District		0.696		−0.160		0.844
		(0.799)		(1.735)		(1.207)
% Nonwhite in House		−2.221		−5.416		−3.229
		(5.255)		(7.470)		(7.596)
Seniority (Terms)		−0.006		0.185		0.033
		(0.113)		(0.147)		(0.143)
Vote Share (Lagged)		0.008		0.004		0.029**
		(0.007)		(0.007)		(0.011)
Intercept	−0.302	−28.054**	−0.964**	9.601	0.565	−15.507
	(0.345)	(9.361)	(0.325)	(5.790)	(0.453)	(21.991)
Legislator Fixed Effects	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Term Fixed Effects	✓		✓		✓	
R^2	0.495	0.607	0.623	0.683	0.458	0.576
Adjusted R^2	0.292	0.333	0.441	0.386	0.196	0.224
Observations	401	203	179	94	222	109

*p<0.05; **p<0.01; ***p<0.001

Note: White Democrats cite more race-based evidence statements as the proportion of nonwhite lawmakers on their committees increases when only including observations from the first committee in which a legislators served three consecutive terms in the sample. The dependent variable is the natural log of the total number of evidence-based statements made by a white lawmaker in a given committee-term (DV = ln(Evidence + 1)). Standard errors are robust and clustered by legislator.

8 Addressing Potential Committee Jurisdiction and Information Effects

8.1 Table 8.1: White Legislators Make More Evidence-Based Race Statements on Racially Diverse Committees (Lagged Race Statements)

	Evidence (White Lawmaker)		Evidence (White Democrat)		Evidence (White Republican)	
	1	2	3	4	5	6
Proportion of Nonwhite Legislators on Committee	**0.535**†	**0.611**†	**0.707**†	0.549	0.447	0.583
	(0.280)	(0.320)	(0.397)	(0.416)	(0.426)	(0.514)
Lagged Committee Race Statements	0.001*	0.0004	0.001***	0.001*	0.0001	−0.0002
	(0.0003)	(0.0003)	(0.0003)	(0.0004)	(0.0004)	(0.0004)
Power Committee	0.129*	0.133*	0.085	0.160†	0.165*	0.088
	(0.052)	(0.060)	(0.077)	(0.087)	(0.070)	(0.083)
# of Hearings	0.001*	0.001	0.001	0.002†	0.001*	−0.0001
	(0.0004)	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)
# of Bills Referred	0.0001†	0.0001	0.0001	0.0001	0.0001	0.0001
	(0.0001)	(0.0001)	(0.0001)	(0.0001)	(0.0001)	(0.0001)
Democrat		−2.313*				
		(1.113)				
DW-NOMINATE (1st Dimension)		−1.185		−1.885		−0.239
		(1.332)		(1.463)		(2.721)
DW-NOMINATE (2nd Dimension)		−1.328*		−1.870**		−0.641
		(0.564)		(0.706)		(0.959)
Committee Chair		0.002		0.092		−0.133
		(0.151)		(0.225)		(0.186)
Majority Party Member		0.080†		0.153		−0.107
		(0.045)		(0.119)		(0.071)
Unified Government		−0.041		0.003		−0.091
		(0.052)		(0.069)		(0.075)
% Nonwhite in District		0.415		−0.160		1.032
		(0.450)		(0.623)		(0.708)
% Nonwhite in House		−3.669		−3.858		−9.164***
		(2.282)		(4.195)		(2.132)
Seniority (Terms)		0.038		0.059		0.133***
		(0.048)		(0.093)		(0.039)
Vote Share (Lagged)		0.002		−0.0003		0.006
		(0.002)		(0.003)		(0.004)
Intercept	0.349**	2.043***	0.191	−0.436	−0.274	0.363
	(0.124)	(0.575)	(0.251)	(0.847)	(0.178)	(1.442)
Legislator Fixed Effects	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Term Fixed Effects	✓		✓		✓	
R^2	0.460	0.495	0.479	0.511	0.463	0.501
Adjusted R^2	0.156	0.127	0.242	0.211	0.077	0.035
Observations	1,797	1,176	815	572	982	604

† p<0.1; * p<0.05; ** p<0.01; *** p<0.001

Note: White Democrats cite more race-based evidence statements as the proportion of nonwhite lawmakers on their committees increases when controlling for the total number of evidence-based race statements made on a given committee in the prior term. The dependent variable is the natural log of the total number of evidence-based statements made by a white lawmaker in a given committee-term (DV = ln(Evidence + 1)). Standard errors are robust and clustered by legislator.

8.2 Table 8.2: White Legislators Make More Evidence-Based Race Statements on Racially Diverse Committees (Committee: Judiciary & Oversight)

	Evidence (White Democrat)	
	Judiciary	Oversight
	1	**2**
Proportion of Nonwhite Legislators on Committee	**4.745**†	**3.888***
	(2.687)	(1.885)
Intercept	−0.302	−0.699*
	(0.563)	(0.339)
Legislator Fixed Effects	✓	✓
R^2	0.580	0.455
Adjusted R^2	0.305	−0.004
Observations	49	71

† $p<0.1$; * $p<0.05$; ** $p<0.01$; *** $p<0.001$

Note: White Democrats cite more race-based evidence statements as the proportion of nonwhite lawmakers when subsetting the sample to include only the Judiciary or Oversight committees. The dependent variable is the natural log of the total number of evidence-based statements made by a white lawmaker in a given committee-term (DV = ln(Evidence + 1)). Standard errors are robust and clustered by legislator.

8.3 Table 8.3: White Legislators Make More Evidence-Based Race Statements on Racially Diverse Committees (Lag Unique Sources)

	Evidence (White Lawmaker)		Evidence (White Democrat)		Evidence (White Republican)	
	1	2	3	4	5	6
Proportion of Nonwhite Legislators on Committee	**0.614***	**0.721***	**0.990***	**0.845**†	0.334	0.381
	(0.286)	(0.330)	(0.431)	(0.466)	(0.423)	(0.527)
Lagged Committee Unique Sources	0.003†	0.002	0.005*	0.003	0.001	0.0001
	(0.001)	(0.002)	(0.002)	(0.002)	(0.002)	(0.002)
Power Committee	0.134*	0.164*	0.153†	0.268**	0.113†	0.011
	(0.057)	(0.068)	(0.092)	(0.099)	(0.067)	(0.091)
Race Committee	−0.004	−0.066	−0.133	−0.209*	0.135†	0.157
	(0.057)	(0.067)	(0.086)	(0.092)	(0.072)	(0.111)
# of Hearings	0.001**	0.001	0.001†	0.002†	0.001*	−0.0002
	(0.0004)	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)
# of Bills Referred	0.0001†	0.0001	0.0002†	0.0002	0.00002	−0.00000
	(0.0001)	(0.0001)	(0.0001)	(0.0001)	(0.0001)	(0.0001)
Democrat		−2.419*				
		(1.109)				
DW-NOMINATE (1st Dimension)		−1.318		−2.151		−0.513
		(1.325)		(1.410)		(2.734)
DW-NOMINATE (2nd Dimension)		−1.357*		−1.878**		−0.565
		(0.567)		(0.711)		(0.943)
Committee Chair		−0.001		0.084		−0.123
		(0.150)		(0.226)		(0.188)
Majority Party Member		0.078†		0.154		−0.112
		(0.046)		(0.113)		(0.072)
Unified Government		−0.031		0.023		−0.110
		(0.051)		(0.069)		(0.071)
% Nonwhite in District		0.462		−0.037		0.921
		(0.445)		(0.617)		(0.752)
% Nonwhite in House		−3.732		−4.244		−8.813***
		(2.319)		(3.742)		(2.112)
Seniority (Terms)		0.039		0.067		0.134***
		(0.049)		(0.083)		(0.037)
Vote Share (Lagged)		0.002		−0.001		0.006
		(0.002)		(0.003)		(0.004)
Intercept	0.307*	2.071***	0.245	−0.558	−0.258	0.485
	(0.138)	(0.591)	(0.278)	(0.796)	(0.177)	(1.428)
Legislator Fixed Effects	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Term Fixed Effects	✓		✓		✓	
R^2	0.459	0.494	0.475	0.510	0.465	0.503
Adjusted R^2	0.154	0.125	0.235	0.208	0.080	0.037
Observations	1,797	1,176	815	572	982	604

† p<0.1; * p<0.05; ** p<0.01; *** p<0.001

Note: White Democrats cite more race-based evidence statements as the proportion of nonwhite lawmakers when controlling for the number of unique sources cited on a given committee in the prior term. The dependent variable is the natural log of the total number of evidence-based statements made by a white lawmaker in a given committee-term (DV = ln(Evidence + 1)). Standard errors are robust and clustered by legislator.

9 Measuring and Testing the Relationship Between Committee Diversity and Non-Race Evidence Statements

To address the concern that the main findings may reflect a broader committee dynamic in which members simply adopt information shared in hearings, I estimate a model using non-race evidence usage as the dependent variable. The goal of this test is to assess whether committee racial diversity predicts a more general tendency among white Democrats to cite evidence in committee, or whether the relationship is specific to race-related discussion. If the main results were driven only by generic information-sharing within committees, then committee diversity should also predict evidence usage in non-race statements. If, by contrast, the relationship is specific to race-related discussion, the association should not appear in an analogous measure of non-race evidence usage.

I operationalize non-race evidence usage as the number of non-race statements in which a legislator cites an executive branch agency or office. I choose this operationalization for two reasons. First, I could not use the source dictionary developed from the race statements themselves, because that dictionary was constructed from sources that appear in race-related discussion and would therefore build race-specific content into the non-race measure. Second, because I determined evidence usage in race statements by reading them individually, I needed a systematic way to measure evidence usage in the much larger corpus of non-race statements without reading all 1.4 million of them. I therefore developed a dictionary of executive branch agencies to measure non-race evidence usage. Executive branch agencies are commonly cited as evidence in committee hearings, the finite number of agencies makes it possible to construct a complete dictionary, and this approach is more objective and replicable than alternatives based on other common source types, such as bills, witness testimony, or court cases. I apply this dictionary to the full corpus of non-race statements, code statements that mention executive branch agencies as 1, aggregate those counts to the legislator–committee–term level, log the resulting measure, and then re-estimate the main models using this alternative dependent variable. The results are not statistically significant for the pooled white sample, white Democrats, or white Republicans. This suggests that committee racial diversity is associated with greater evidence usage by white Democrats specifically in race-related discussion. Of course, this is not a perfect measure. Ideally, I would build a training set of several thousand non-race statements, read and code them for evidence usage, and then construct a dictionary from that training set. But because this is a robustness check, I view the executive-agency measure as a useful and sufficient proxy for non-race evidence usage.

9.1 Table 9.1: White Legislators Do Not Make More Evidence-Based Non-Race Statements on Racially Diverse Committees

	Evidence Non-Race (White Lawmaker)		Evidence Non-Race (White Democrat)		Evidence Non-Race (White Republican)	
	1	2	3	4	5	6
Proportion of Nonwhite Legislators on Committee	−0.038	0.228	−0.478	0.427	0.308	0.507
	(0.652)	(0.708)	(1.024)	(1.133)	(0.818)	(1.035)
Power Committee	0.139	0.186	0.168	0.289	0.105	−0.020
	(0.146)	(0.167)	(0.215)	(0.235)	(0.201)	(0.214)
# of Hearings	0.005***	0.007***	0.006***	0.009***	0.005***	0.006***
	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.002)	(0.002)	(0.001)	(0.002)
# of Bills Referred	0.0001	0.0001	0.0001	0.0001	0.0001	0.0001
	(0.0001)	(0.0001)	(0.0002)	(0.0002)	(0.0002)	(0.0002)
Democrat		−1.245				
		(2.574)				
DW-NOMINATE (1st Dimension)		−0.637		−0.565		−0.324
		(2.921)		(4.269)		(8.407)
DW-NOMINATE (2nd Dimension)		0.468		2.428		−2.493
		(1.568)		(1.587)		(3.329)
Committee Chair		0.075		−0.144		0.397
		(0.233)		(0.286)		(0.351)
Majority Party Member		0.270**		0.134		0.330
		(0.100)		(0.176)		(0.240)
Unified Government		−0.144		−0.049		−0.198
		(0.083)		(0.121)		(0.117)
% Nonwhite in District		−0.806		−1.944		1.524
		(0.968)		(1.129)		(1.241)
% Nonwhite in House		−6.897		−0.227		−8.060
		(4.388)		(7.086)		(10.546)
Seniority (Terms)		0.069		−0.016		0.047
		(0.096)		(0.148)		(0.217)
Vote Share (Lagged)		−0.006		−0.004		−0.008
		(0.005)		(0.005)		(0.011)
Intercept	4.077***	3.540**	1.098***	2.510	4.020***	5.419
	(0.298)	(1.372)	(0.300)	(2.141)	(0.383)	(4.817)
Legislator Fixed Effects	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Term Fixed Effects	✓		✓		✓	
R^2	0.575	0.640	0.553	0.610	0.605	0.687
Adjusted R^2	0.350	0.380	0.362	0.374	0.342	0.398
Observations	1,935	1,181	875	575	1,060	606

$^{*}p<0.05$; $^{**}p<0.01$; $^{***}p<0.001$

Note: White Democrats do not cite more non-race evidence statements as the proportion of nonwhite lawmakers increase. The dependent variable is the natural log of the total number of non-race evidence statements made by a white lawmaker in a given committee-term (DV = ln(Evidence + 1)). Standard errors are robust and clustered by legislator.